MAT354H1: Complex Analysis I

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The Algebra and Geometry of $\mathbb{C}$, Holomorphic Functions

Some information:

1. Instructor: Freid Tong
2. Lectures: Tuesday 1-3 PM, Thursday 12-1 PM
3. Tutorials: 2 sections, starts next week.
4. Textbook: Stein & Shakarchi, Complex Analysis
5. Grading: Homework: 10%, Midterm: 35%, Final 55 %

Complex analysis is the theory of calculus over the complex numbers, the complex numbers are given by the set

$$\mathbb{C} = \{x + iy : x, y \in \mathbb{R},\ i^2 = -1\}$$

At first it might seem like we are just replacing reals with complex, however, in this course we will see that there is more to this than replacing reals with complex numbers. The theory of complex analysis is richer than the reals. It is more geometric in nature. We will see that complex analysis has some rigid phenomena, there are some things in real analysis that do not happen in complex analysis, which we will see in this course.

We can perform the following operations on complex numbers:

1. Addition: If $z = a + bi$ and $w = c + di$ then $z + w = (a + c) + (b + d)i$
2. Multiplication: With the same set up, $z \cdot w = (a + bi)(c + di) = ac - bd + i(ad + bc)$

Remark: The set $\mathbb{C}$ with the addition and multiplication operations form a field.

A nice way to think of the complex numbers is by studying its geometry. The following figure shows us what happens in $\mathbb{C}$:

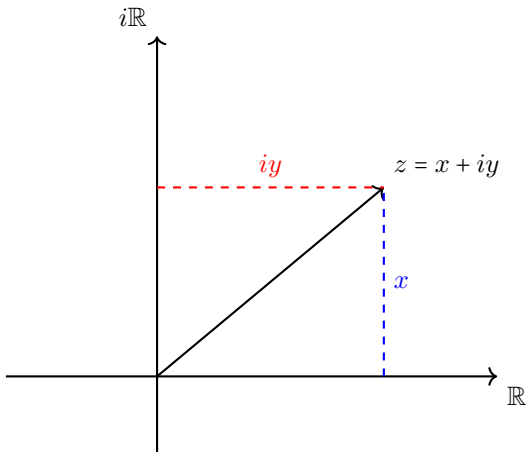


Figure 1: Geometric representation of $z = x + iy$.

So we can think of a complex number z as a vector where we have the real and imaginary parts of z, namely $\mathrm{Re}(z)$ and $\mathrm{Im}(z)$. So when adding two complex numbers we are just performing vector addition, but we are not

multiplying in the same sense as the real numbers, but rather we can view $\mathbb{C}$ as a 2-dimensional vector space with additional structure.

Definition. Let $z \in \mathbb{C}$, we define the **complex conjugate** of z as the number $\bar{z} = x - iy$

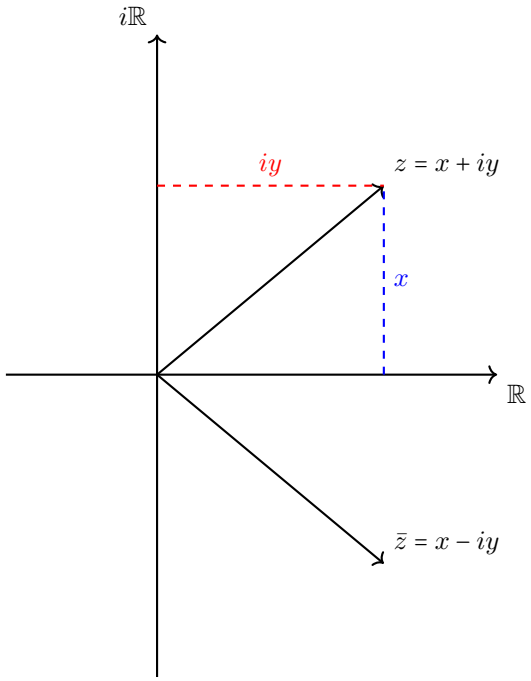


Figure 2: Representing the conjugate $\bar{z} = x - iy$.

So, going back to the graph, what we are doing is taking the number z and reflect it on the axis. From here we get the following quantity:

Definition. We define the **norm** of a complex number as

$$|z| = \sqrt{z\bar{z}} = \sqrt{x^2 + y^2}$$

In other words this is just the length of z

It turns out this conjugate is very useful for dividing complex numbers. Suppose that $z = x + iy$ is nonzero ($x, y \neq 0$). We want to write an expression for $\frac{1}{z}$. It turns out that this is given by

$$\frac{\bar{z}}{z\bar{z}} = \frac{x - iy}{x^2 + y^2} = \frac{x}{x^2 + y^2} - i\frac{y}{x^2 + y^2}$$

From all of this, we have two viewpoints for complex numbers: Algebraic and Geometric This gives us a natural question: What is multiplication? Given $z \in \mathbb{C}$, we can view complex multiplication as a linear mapping $z\times : \mathbb{C} \to \mathbb{C}$. If $z \in \mathbb{R}$ then $z\times$ is just a dilation. The following figures show how this map acts with respect to the number z

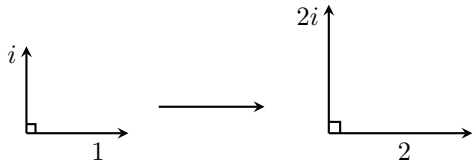


Figure 3: the mapping $2\times$

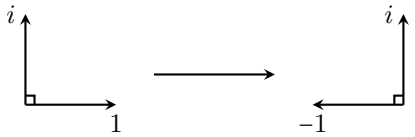


Figure 4: The mapping $i\times$

This tells us that complex multiplication is either a dilation or a rotation. Now to make our lives easier, let us introduce polar coordinates

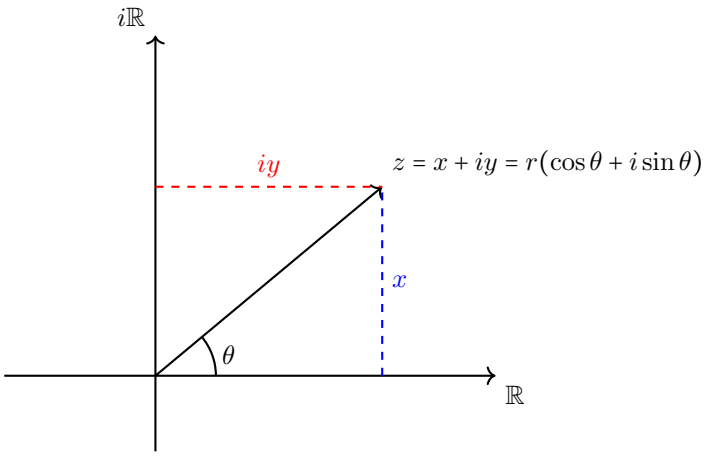


Figure 5: The polar form of z

In this case we have $z = r(\cos\theta + i\sin\theta)$ where r is the modulus of z and $(\cos\theta + i\sin\theta)$ a unit vector and θ is the **argument** of z or angle. Let us now do multiplication in polar coordinates

Example. Suppose $z_1 = r_1(\cos\theta_1 + i\sin\theta_1)$ and $z_2 = r_2(\cos\theta_2 + i\sin\theta_2)$ So now we have

$$\begin{aligned} z_1 \cdot z_2 &= r_1 r_2(\cos\theta_1 + i\sin\theta_1)(\cos\theta_2 + i\sin\theta_2) \\ &= r_1 r_2(\cos\theta_1\cos\theta_2 - \sin\theta_1\sin\theta_2 + i(\cos\theta_1\sin\theta_2 + \sin\theta_1\cos\theta_2)) \\ &= r_1 r_2(\cos(\theta_1+\theta_2) + i\sin(\theta_1+\theta_2)) \end{aligned}$$

Remark: We are multiplying the norm, and adding the angles.

From now, we denote by $e^{i\theta}$ the expression

$$\cos\theta + i\sin\theta$$

Exercise: Verify $e^{i\theta_1}e^{i\theta_2} = e^{i(\theta_1+\theta_2)}$.

This is a very nice identity because it makes our life easier, and a lot of formulas sort of reduce into something nicer thanks to this, and later on we will see how this is useful in defining the complex exponential. So now we can write $re^{i\theta}$ instead of $r(\cos\theta + i\sin\theta)$.

Example. Let $T : \mathbb{C} \to \mathbb{C}$ be given by $z \mapsto (1+i)z$. This multiplies the length by $\sqrt{2}$ and rotate by $\frac{\pi}{4}$.

We can also think of these problems as a 2×2 matrix (since we can encode this as a linear transformation on $\mathbb{R}^2 \to \mathbb{R}^2$), so now we want to see which 2×2 matrix can represent this transformation. More generally, suppose that we have a linear map

$$T_w : \mathbb{C} \to \mathbb{C} \qquad z \mapsto w \cdot z$$

Again, we are multiplying the length by $|w|$ and rotate by $\arg(w)$. Now, if $w = a + bi$ and $z = x + yi$, then $T_w(x + yi) = ax - by + i(ay + bx)$. As a result, T_w is represented by the matrix

$$\begin{pmatrix} a & -b \\ b & a \end{pmatrix}$$

One thing that we can conclude is that matrices of this type where we have equality along the diagonal and a sign change along the antidiagonal are ones that are produced by a rotation and a dilation

Now that we are done with the algebra and geometry of $\mathbb{C}$, we can move onto developing the calculus on $\mathbb{C}$. Suppose now that we have a function on some open set $\Omega \subseteq \mathbb{C} \to \mathbb{C}$, we want to talk about various notions, but first let us recall a few things from topology

$$\text{Topology of } \mathbb{C} = \text{Topology inherited from } \mathbb{R}^2$$

This topology is generated by open balls $D(z_0, r) = \{z \in \mathbb{C} : |z - z_0| < r\}$. This means that we have a notion of continuity, convergence, etc.

Definition. We say that $\lim_{z \to z_0} f(z) = L \in \mathbb{C}$ if

$$\forall \varepsilon > 0, \exists \delta > 0, \text{ s.t if } z \in D_\delta(z_0) \setminus \{z_0\} \implies |f(z) - L| < \varepsilon$$

Definition. Let $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$, we say that f is **holomorphic** at a point $z_0 \in \Omega$ if the following limit exists:

$$\lim_{h \to 0,\ h \in \mathbb{C}} \frac{f(z_0 + h) - f(z_0)}{h}$$

If this limit exists, we denote it by $f'(z_0)$

Example. Consider $f(z_0) = z^n$, to see if this is holomorphic, we compute

$$\begin{aligned} f'(z_0) &= \lim_{h \to 0} \frac{(z+h)^n - z^n}{h} \\ &= \lim_{h \to 0} \frac{h}{h}\left((z+h)^{n-1} + (z+h)^{n-2} \cdot z + \cdots + (z+h) \cdot z^{n-2} + z^{n-1}\right) \\ &= nz^{n-1} \end{aligned}$$

Thus z^n is holomorphic on $\mathbb{C}$.

Example. Take $f(z) = \bar{z}$. As in the previous example, we have

$$\begin{aligned} f'(z) &= \lim_{h\to 0} \frac{(\overline{z+h}) - \overline{z}}{h} \\ &= \lim_{h\to 0} \frac{\bar{h}}{h} \end{aligned}$$

We run into a problem, as this limit does not exist due to the fact that the directional limits are not equal, one can take h real then h purely imaginary. This is an example of a function that is linear but not complex differentiable! If we were to view this as a mapping on $\mathbb{R}^2 \to \mathbb{R}^2$ via $(x, y) \mapsto (x, -y)$ which is real differentiable, but this is not holomorphic.

Theorem. If $f, g : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ are holomorphic at z_0, then

1. $(f+g)'(z_0) = f'(z_0) + g'(z_0)$
2. $(f \cdot g)'(z_0) = f'(z_0)g(z_0) + f(z_0)g'(z_0)$
3. If $g(z_0) \neq 0$, then
$$\left(\frac{f}{g}\right)' = \frac{f'(z_0)g(z_0) - g'(z_0)f(z_0)}{g(z_0)^2}$$
Moreover, if $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is holomorphic at z_0 and $g : U \to \mathbb{C}$ is holomorphic at $f(z_0)$ then $(g \circ f)'(z) = g'(f(z_0)) \cdot f'(z_0)$

Proof. Exercise. □

This implies that:

1. $f(z) = a_n z^n + \cdots + a_1 z + a_0$ is holomorphic.
2. Rational functions are holomorphic (be aware of the denominator), for instance, $f(z) = \frac{z+1}{z-i}$ is holomorphic on $\mathbb{C} \setminus \{i\}$.
3. $f(z) = |z|^2 = z \cdot \bar{z}$ is holomorphic at 0 (verify this!)

In light of these examples, a natural question to ask is: What is a holomorphic function? How does this complex derivative behave with respect to the real derivative? Now, we discuss the interaction of the $\mathbb{C}$-derivative and $\mathbb{R}$-derivative. To get started, let $f : \Omega \subseteq \mathbb{C} \to \mathbb{C}$ be written in terms of real valued functions u and v, that is $f = u + iv$. Now, let us write

$$F(x, y) = (u(x, y), v(x, y)) : \Omega \to \mathbb{R}^2$$

Recall (from 257/237) that F is differentiable at z_0 if and only if there exists a 2×2 matrix A such that

$$\lim_{|h|\to 0,\ h\in\mathbb{R}^2} \frac{|F(z_0 + h) - F(z_0) - A \cdot h|}{|h|} = 0$$

If the limit exists, then

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} & \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} \\ \frac{\partial v}{\partial x} & \frac{\partial v}{\partial y} \end{pmatrix}(z_0)$$

One can immediately see that if $f'(z_0)$ exists, then

$$\lim_{h\to 0} \frac{f(z_0 + h) - f(z_0) - f'(z_0)h}{h} = 0$$

$$\implies \lim_{h \to 0} \frac{|f(z_0 + h) - f(z_0) - f'(z_0)h|}{|h|} = 0$$

So this implies that being complex differentiable/holomorphic $\implies$ real differentiable.

Cauchy-Riemann Equations and the Complex Exponential

Last time, we defined what it means for a function $f : \Omega \subseteq \mathbb{C} \to \mathbb{C}$ to be differentiable, namely the following limit exists:

$$f'(z_0) = \lim_{h \to 0} \frac{f(z_0 + h) - f(z_0)}{h}$$

Which looked very much the same as the definition for real derivatives, except h is now a complex number, so we take the limit across the complex plane. We also looked at some examples, such as polynomials, and some functions which were surprisingly not holomorphic (such $f(z) = \bar{z}$) anywhere, which was strange because if we view it as a real function it is differentiable but when switching to the complex perspective it is not. This naturally gives us the question "What does it mean for a real function $\mathbb{R}^2 \to \mathbb{R}^2$ to be holomorphic?"

Taking a coordinate $z = x + iy$, we write $f(z) = u(x, y) + iv(x, y)$, where u, v are both real valued functions on $\mathbb{R}^2$, and to avoid confusion we used the notation $F(x, y) = (u(x, y), v(x, y)) : \Omega \to \mathbb{R}^2$. F is real differentiable at z_0 if there is a 2×2 matrix A such that the following limit is 0.

$$\lim_{|h| \to 0} \frac{|F(z + h) - F(z) - A \cdot h|}{|h|}$$

Moreover, this matrix A is given by the partial derivatives, namely

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} & \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} \\ \frac{\partial v}{\partial x} & \frac{\partial v}{\partial y} \end{pmatrix} (z_0) = DF(z_0)$$

It is easy to see that if f is $\mathbb{C}$-differentiable ($f'(z_0)$ exists) then $DF(z_0)$ exists. But then we notice that the real derivative (the matrix DF) is represented by 4 numbers, while the complex derivative is given (a priori) for one number which then can be written in 2 numbers.

So, one can take the limit

$$\begin{aligned} f'(z_0) &= \lim_{h \to 0,\ h \in \mathbb{R}} \frac{f(z_0 + h) - f(z_0)}{h} \\ &= \frac{\partial u}{\partial x}(z_0) + i \frac{\partial v}{\partial x}(z_0) \end{aligned}$$

So we are just taking the partial derivatives with respect to the real line, we can also write

$$\begin{aligned} f'(z_0) &= \lim_{h \to 0,\ h \in \mathbb{R}} \frac{f(z_0 + ih) - f(z_0)}{ih} \\ &= \frac{1}{i} \left(\frac{\partial u}{\partial y}(z_0) + i \frac{\partial v}{\partial y}(z_0) \right) \\ &= \frac{\partial v}{\partial y}(z_0) - i \frac{\partial u}{\partial y}(z_0) \end{aligned}$$

since $f'(z_0)$ exists (the limit defining it does not depend on the direction $h \to 0$ is taken from), both expressions for $f'(z_0)$ must agree:

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial x}(z_0) + i \frac{\partial v}{\partial x}(z_0) = \frac{\partial v}{\partial y}(z_0) - i \frac{\partial u}{\partial y}(z_0)$$

Comparing real and imaginary parts of both sides gives

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial x}(z_0) = \frac{\partial v}{\partial y}(z_0), \qquad \frac{\partial v}{\partial x}(z_0) = -\frac{\partial u}{\partial y}(z_0)$$

So these constraints result into the function f satisfying the **Cauchy-Riemann** equations

$$\begin{cases} \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = \frac{\partial v}{\partial y} \\ \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} = -\frac{\partial v}{\partial x} \end{cases}$$

Another interpretation would be that for a real differentiable function whose derivative is given by

$$DF = \begin{pmatrix} \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} & \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} \\ \frac{\partial v}{\partial x} & \frac{\partial v}{\partial y} \end{pmatrix}$$

Again, here we have a priori 2 inputs (u, v being the 2 real valued functions), then we have 4 numbers, so we can identify these equations via the matrix from last lecture (a rotation and a dilation)

$$DF = \begin{pmatrix} \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} & \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} \\ \frac{\partial v}{\partial x} & \frac{\partial v}{\partial y} \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} a & -b \\ b & a \end{pmatrix}$$

Theorem. $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ and $F : \Omega \to \mathbb{R}^2$ then $f'(z_0)$ exists if and only if $DF(z_0)$ exists and the Cauchy Riemann equations are satisfied

Proof. ($\Longrightarrow$) was already proven in the above discussion.

To prove ($\Longleftarrow$), note that $DF(z_0) = \begin{pmatrix} a & -b \\ b & a \end{pmatrix}$, then we have that

$$\lim_{h \to 0} \frac{\left| F(z+h) - F(z) - \begin{pmatrix} a & -b \\ b & a \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} h_x \\ h_y \end{pmatrix} \right|}{|h|} = 0$$

□

Example. We show that $f(z) = x^2 - y^2 + i2xy = z^2$ satisfies the Cauchy-Riemann equations. Indeed, note that $u(x, y) = x^2 - y^2$ and $v(x, y) = 2xy$ then

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = 2x = \frac{\partial v}{\partial y}$$

and

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial y} = -2y = -\frac{\partial v}{\partial x}$$

Example. We show that $f(z) = \bar{z}$ does not satisfy the Cauchy-Riemann equations. Again, $\bar{z} = x - iy$ so $u(x, y) = x$ and $v(x, y) = -y$, then we get

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = 1 \neq \frac{\partial v}{\partial y} = -1$$

and

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial y} = 0 = \frac{\partial v}{\partial x}$$

hence $\bar{z}$ does not satisfy the Cauchy Riemann equations.

Let us now define the exponential. Fixing $z = x + iy$, we can extend the notion of the exponential in $\mathbb{R}$ to $\mathbb{C}$

Definition. The **complex exponential** is defined by $e^z = e^x(\cos y + i \sin y)$

We claim that this function satisfies the Cauchy-Riemann equations. To this end, we write $u(x, y) = e^x \cos y$ and $v(x, y) = e^x \sin y$, then we have

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = e^x \cos y, \qquad \frac{\partial v}{\partial y} = e^x \cos y$$

and

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial y} = -e^x \sin y, \qquad \frac{\partial v}{\partial x} = e^x \sin y$$

Therefore, the complex exponential satisfies the Cauchy-Riemann equations and it is also holomorphic, with $(e^z)' = \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} + i\frac{\partial v}{\partial x} = e^z$.

Complex Line Integrals & Cauchy's Theorem

Last week, we derived the Cauchy-Riemann equations. More precisely, given $F : \Omega \to \mathbb{R}^2$, and $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$. We proved that $f'(z_0)$ exists if and only if $DF(z_0)$ exists and the Cauchy-Riemann equations are satisfied, here DF is given by

$$DF(z_0) = \begin{pmatrix} \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} & \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} \\ \frac{\partial v}{\partial x} & \frac{\partial v}{\partial y} \end{pmatrix}(z_0)$$

In this lecture, we shift our focus towards integration of curves.

Definition. A **parametrized curve** in $\mathbb{C}$ is a continuous function $z(t) : [a, b] \to \mathbb{C}$.

1. $z(t)$ is **smooth** if $z'(t)$ exists and is nonzero and is also continuous.
2. $z(t)$ is **piecewise smooth** if there is a partition $a = a_1 < \cdots < a_n = b$ of $[a, b]$ such that $z(t)$ is smooth on $[a_k, a_{k+1}]$.

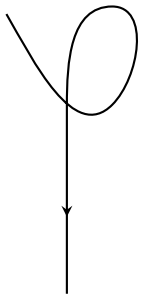


Figure 6: A curve

Two parameterizations $z(t) : [a, b] \to \mathbb{C}$ and $\tilde{z}(s) : [c, d] \to \mathbb{C}$ describe the same curve γ if $\tilde{z}(s) = z(t(s))$ for some $t(s) : [c, d] \to [a, b]$ which is C^1 and $t'(s) > 0$. This $t'(s)$ means a curve that comes with a "direction". See the following figure:

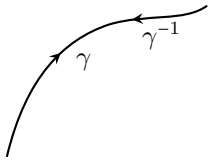
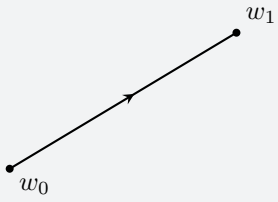


Figure 7: The curve γ and the reverse curve γ^-

Some times its useful to denote the reverse curve (basically the curve that is going in the opposite notation, we denote by γ^-). It is the same curve γ, but we have a reparameterization. In any case, this is the same definition used when studying line integrals.

Definition. A curve is **closed** if $z(a) = z(b)$. Moreover, a curve is **simple** if $z(c) \neq z(d)$ for $c \neq d \in [a, b]$ but $(c, d) \neq (a, b)$. If a curve starts and ends at the same point it is said to be a **simple closed curve**

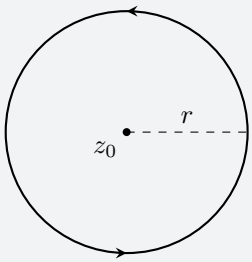
Example. Start at a point w_0 and stop at w_1, we can parametrize this using $z(t) = w_0 + t(w_1 - w_0)$ for $t \in [0, 1]$.



The derivative is given by $z'(t) = w_1 - w_0$.

Example. Consider a circle centered at z_0 with radius $r > 0$. We can parametrize this using

$$z(t) = z_0 + re^{it}, \quad t \in [0, 2\pi].$$



The derivative of this parametrization is given by $z'(t) = ire^{it}$.

Let $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ and $\gamma \in \Omega$ be a curve. We want to define the complex line integral

$$\int_\gamma f(z)\, dz$$

To make sense of this, we pick a parametrization $z(t) : [a, b] \to \Omega$, so the integral is given by

$$\int_a^b f(z(t))z'(t)dt$$

Suppose $f = u + iv$, we can write our integral as

$$\int_a^b \big(u(x(t), y(t)) + iv(x(t), y(t))\big)\big(x'(t) + iy'(t)\big)\, dt$$

It is not clear a priori why this is independent of the parametrization, because earlier we wrote down the line integral in terms of the curve and then we used the parametrization. The natural question rises: Why is this well-defined? Suppose $z(t) : [a, b] \to \Omega$ and $\tilde{z}(s) : [c, d] \to \Omega$. Then $\tilde{z}(s) = z(t(s))$. By the change of variables formula, we obtain the following

$$\int_c^d f(\tilde{z}(s))\tilde{z}'(s)ds = \int_c^d f(\tilde{z}(s))\tilde{z}'(s)\, ds = \int_c^d f\big(z(t(s))\big)\, z'(t(s))\, t'(s)\, ds = \int_a^b f(z(t))\, z'(t)\, dt,$$

Proposition. **(Properties of the Complex Line Integral)**

1. It is linear:
$$\int_\gamma (af(z) + bg(z))\, dz = a\int_\gamma f(z)\, dz + b\int_\gamma g(z)\, dz$$
2. $$\int_{\gamma^-} f(z)\, dz = -\int_\gamma f(z)\, dz$$
3. $$\left|\int_\gamma f(z\ )dz\right| \le \sup_{z\in\gamma} |f(z)| \text{Length}(\gamma).$$

Here the length of the curve γ is given by

$$\text{Length}(\gamma) = \int_a^b |z'(t)|\, dt$$

Proof. We prove (3). Indeed, suppose that we have a parametrization $z(t)$ of γ, then

$$\begin{aligned}\left|\int_a^b f(z(t))z'(t)\, dt\right| &\leq \int_a^b |f(z(t))||z'(t)|\, dt \\ &\leq \sup_{z\in\gamma}|f(z)|\int_a^b |z'(t)|dt \\ &= \sup_{z\in\gamma}|f(z)|\,\text{Length}(\gamma)\end{aligned}$$

□

Example. We compute $\int_\gamma z^n dz$ for $n \in \mathbb{Z}$, where γ denotes a circle centered at the origin with the positive orientation. To this end, we can parametrize this by $z(t) = re^{it}$ for $t \in [0, 2\pi]$. So

$$\begin{aligned}\int_\gamma z^n dz &= \int_0^{2\pi} i(re^{it})^{n+1}\, dt \\ &= ir^{n+1}\int_0^{2\pi} \cos((n+1)t) + i\sin((n+1)t)dt \\ &= \begin{cases} 0 & \text{if } n \neq -1 \\ 2\pi i & \text{if } n = -1 \end{cases}\end{aligned}$$

Example. We compute $\int_\gamma \bar{z}\, dz$ along the same curve as the previous example. If we use the same parametrization, then we have

$$\int_\gamma \bar{z}\, dz = \int_0^{2\pi} re^{-it}\cdot ire^{it}\, dt$$

Recall that

$$\begin{aligned}\overline{e^{it}} &= \overline{\cos t + i\sin t} \\ &= \cos t - i\sin t \\ &= \cos(-t) + i\sin(-t) \\ &= e^{-it}\end{aligned}$$

Now, going back to the integral, this simplifies to

$$\int_0^{2\pi} ir^2 dt = 2\pi i r^2$$

Now, going back to the first example, what makes the $n = -1$ special? is there a geometric reason? Suppose that $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is a continuous, we say that $F : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is a **primitive** of f if F is holomorphic and $F'(z) = f(z)$ for all $z \in \Omega$. One can think of this as the complex version of the real primitive.

Theorem. **(Fundamental Theorem of Contour Integrals)** Using the set up above. If $\gamma \subseteq \Omega$ is a curve, then

$$\int_\gamma f(z)dz = F(z(b)) - F(z(a))$$

Proof. Suppose that $z(t) : [a, b] \to \Omega$ is a parametrization of the curve γ. Then, if F is holomorphic we have

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{d}{dt}F(z(t)) &= F'(z(t))z'(t) \\ &= f(z(t))z'(t) && \text{(Since } F \text{ is a primitive of } f\text{)} \end{aligned}$$

By the Fundamental Theorem of Calculus, we have

$$\begin{aligned} \int_\gamma f(z)\ dz &= \int_a^b f(z(t))z'(t)dt \\ &= \int_a^b \frac{d}{dt}F(z(t))\ dt \\ &= F(z(b)) - F(z(a)). \end{aligned}$$

□

Example. Going back to the first integral we computed, we can use this fundamental theorem to compute

$$\int_\gamma z^n\ dz$$

Indeed, all we have to do is find a primitive, which in the $n \neq -1$ case, we have

$$\left(\frac{z^{n+1}}{n+1}\right)' = z^n$$

Corollary. If $\gamma \subseteq \Omega$ is a closed curve, and f has a primitive in Ω, then

$$\int_\gamma f(z)dz = 0$$

Corollary. If Ω is connected and $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is holomorphic, and $f' \equiv 0$. Then f is constant.

It turns out if we take the integral of a holomorphic function along a closed curve, we often get zero. But in some cases, it is not, this will not be our focus now. The goal is to get to Cauchy's theorem.

Theorem. **(Cauchy's Theorem)** If $f : \mathbb{D} \to \mathbb{C}$ is a holomorphic function and γ is a simple closed curve whose interior is in $\mathbb{D}$. Then

$$\int_\gamma f(z)dz = 0$$

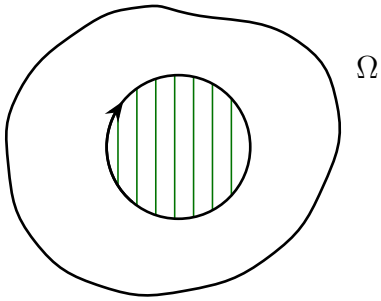


Figure 8: The region Ω with the curve γ in the interior

Due to time constraints we will not have the time to prove the full theorem, so we will prove a simpler version, due to Goursat

Theorem. **(Goursat's Theorem)** Let Ω be an open set in $\mathbb{C}$, $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ be a holomorphic function and let T be a triangle whose interior $\mathscr{T}$ is also in Ω. Then

$$\int_T f(z)dz = 0$$

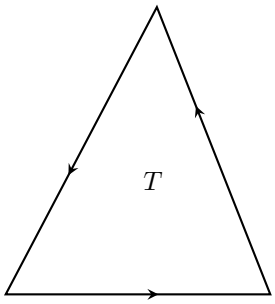


Figure 9: The boundary of the triangle T

Proof. Next time! □

Proof of Goursat's Theorem

Last time, we defined what a complex line integral is. Given a continuous $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ for Ω an open set in $\mathbb{C}$, the integral of f along a curve $\gamma \subseteq \Omega$ is given by

$$\int_\gamma f(z)\ dz := \int_a^b f(z(t))z'(t)\ dt$$

We also showed that this is independent of the parametrization. There is another way to see it, essentially we can write it as the sum of 2 real line integrals (which again, are independent), so dz here is some complex line element, given by $dz = dx + idy$, so when we take the complex valued function, multiplying it by the line element dz. In other words,

$$\int_\gamma (u + iv)(dx + idy)$$

We then computed a bunch of line integrals and showed that the complex line integral satisfies some basic properties (linearity, etc) and proved the Fundamental Theorem of Calculus for Complex Line integrals (otherwise known as the Fundamental theorem of Contour Integrals).

Theorem. If f has a primitive $F(z) : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$. That is, to say $F'(z) = f(z)$. Then

$$\int_\gamma f(z)dz = F(z(b)) - F(z(a))$$

A corollary of this theorem is that if f has a primitive and we integrate along a closed curve, that integral must be zero, i.e.

$$\int_\gamma f(z) = 0$$

for γ a closed curve. Which makes sense because the end points are equivalent, so by the fundamental theorem the result follows. We can do more, last time, we stated a theorem due to Goursat

Theorem. **(Goursat's Theorem)** Suppose that $\overline{\mathscr{T}} \subseteq \Omega$ is a triangle and $T = \partial\mathscr{T}$ is the boundary. If $f : \Omega \supseteq \overline{\mathscr{T}} \to \mathbb{C}$ is holomorphic, then

$$\int_T f(z)\ dz = 0$$

Proof. The idea is to use subdivision of the triangle into smaller ones, indeed. Let $T^{(0)} = T$, and let $L = \text{length}(T^{(0)})$ and $d = \text{diam}(\overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(0)})$. Bisect each side of $\mathscr{T}^{(0)}$ at its midpoint and connect the three midpoints. This partitions $\mathscr{T}^{(0)}$ into four smaller triangles

$$\mathscr{T}_1^{(0)}, \mathscr{T}_2^{(0)}, \mathscr{T}_3^{(0)}, \mathscr{T}_4^{(0)},$$

each similar to $\mathscr{T}^{(0)}$ with sides half as long. Orient each boundary $\partial\mathscr{T}_k^{(0)}$ positively (counterclockwise).

Now summing the four integrals gives back the original

$$\int_{T^{(0)}} f(z)\,dz = \sum_{k=1}^{4} \int_{\partial\mathscr{T}_k^{(0)}} f(z)\,dz.$$

Indeed, every edge of the subdivision is either (i) part of the boundary of $\mathscr{T}^{(0)}$, traversed once with the correct orientation, or (ii) an interior segment (connecting two midpoints), shared by exactly two of the small triangles and traversed once in each direction. The interior contributions cancel pairwise, leaving exactly the integral over $T^{(0)}$.

By the triangle inequality,

$$\left|\int_{T^{(0)}} f(z)\,dz\right| \le \sum_{k=1}^{4} \left|\int_{\partial \mathscr{T}_k^{(0)}} f(z)\,dz\right|,$$

so at least one $k \in \{1,2,3,4\}$ satisfies

$$\left|\int_{\partial \mathscr{T}_k^{(0)}} f(z)\,dz\right| \ge \frac{1}{4}\left|\int_{T^{(0)}} f(z)\,dz\right|.$$

Let us call this triangle $T^{(1)}$. We repeat the subdivision on $T^{(1)}$, and choose a sub-triangle $T^{(2)}$ with the analogous property, and so on. This produces a nested sequence of closed triangles

$$\overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(0)} \supseteq \overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(1)} \supseteq \overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(2)} \supseteq \dots$$

such that for every $n \ge 0$:

$$\left|\int_{T^{(n)}} f(z)\,dz\right| \ge \frac{1}{4^n}\left|\int_{T^{(0)}} f(z)\,dz\right|, \tag{$*$}$$

$$\operatorname{diam}\left(\overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(n)}\right) = \frac{d}{2^n}, \qquad \operatorname{length}\left(T^{(n)}\right) = \frac{L}{2^n}.$$

Note that the sets $\overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(n)}$ are nonempty, compact, nested, and $\operatorname{diam}(\overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(n)}) \to 0$. By the nested compact set theorem, there exists a unique point

$$z_0 \in \bigcap_{n=0}^{\infty} \overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(n)} \subseteq \overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(0)} \subseteq \Omega.$$

Claim:

$$\left|\int_{T^{(k)}} f(z)\ dz\right| \le \frac{1}{4^k}\varepsilon^k$$

Such that $\varepsilon_k \to 0$ whenever $k \to \infty$.

Proof. Since f is holomorphic at z_0, let us define

$$\psi(z) = \begin{cases} \dfrac{f(z) - f(z_0) - f'(z_0)(z - z_0)}{z - z_0}, & z \ne z_0, \\ 0, & z = z_0. \end{cases}$$

By definition of $f'(z_0)$, ψ is continuous at z_0 with $\psi(z_0) = 0$; that is,

$$\psi(z) \to 0 \quad \text{as } z \to z_0.$$

For $z \ne z_0$ this rearranges to

$$f(z) = f(z_0) + f'(z_0)(z - z_0) + \psi(z)(z - z_0),$$

and this identity also holds trivially at $z = z_0$. We show that the linear part vanishes. Indeed, the function $z \mapsto f(z_0) + f'(z_0)(z - z_0)$ has the primitive $F(z) = f(z_0)z + \frac{1}{2}f'(z_0)(z - z_0)^2$ on all of $\mathbb{C}$. Since $T^{(k)}$ is a closed curve,

$$\int_{T^{(k)}} \left[f(z_0) + f'(z_0)(z - z_0)\right] dz = 0,$$

so

$$\int_{T^{(k)}} f(z)\,dz = \int_{T^{(k)}} \psi(z)(z - z_0)\,dz.$$

Now we set

$$\varepsilon_k := d\,L \cdot \sup_{z \in \overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(k)}} |\psi(z)|.$$

This is well-defined since ψ is continuous on the compact set $\overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(k)}$ (continuous away from z_0, and continuous at z_0 by the differentiability of f at that point). We show that $\varepsilon_k \to 0$. Given $\eta > 0$, continuity of ψ at z_0 provides $\delta > 0$ such that $|\psi(z)| < \eta$ whenever $|z - z_0| < \delta$. Since $z_0 \in \overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(k)}$ for every k and $\operatorname{diam}(\overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(k)}) = d/2^k \to 0$, there is N such that for all $k \geq N$,

$$\overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(k)} \subseteq D(z_0, \delta),$$

which forces $\sup_{z \in \overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(k)}} |\psi(z)| \leq \eta$, hence $\varepsilon_k \leq dL\,\eta$ for $k \geq N$. As $\eta > 0$ was arbitrary, $\varepsilon_k \to 0$.

Now, for $z \in T^{(k)} \subseteq \overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(k)}$, we have $|z - z_0| \leq \operatorname{diam}(\overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(k)}) = d/2^k$ and $|\psi(z)| \leq \sup_{\overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(k)}} |\psi|$. By the properties of the complex line integral, we have

$$\left| \int_{T^{(k)}} f(z)\,dz \right| = \left| \int_{T^{(k)}} \psi(z)(z - z_0)\,dz \right| \leq \Big(\sup_{\overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(k)}} |\psi| \Big) \cdot \frac{d}{2^k} \cdot \operatorname{length}(T^{(k)}) = \Big(\sup_{\overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(k)}} |\psi| \Big) \cdot \frac{d}{2^k} \cdot \frac{L}{2^k}.$$

That is,

$$\left| \int_{T^{(k)}} f(z)\,dz \right| \leq \frac{dL \cdot \sup_{\overline{\mathscr{T}}^{(k)}} |\psi|}{4^k} = \frac{\varepsilon_k}{4^k},$$

which is exactly desired inequality, with $\varepsilon_k \to 0$ as $k \to \infty$. □

Combining the claim with $(*)$, we obtain, for every k,

$$\left| \int_{T^{(0)}} f(z)\,dz \right| \leq 4^k \left| \int_{T^{(k)}} f(z)\,dz \right| \leq 4^k \cdot \frac{\varepsilon_k}{4^k} = \varepsilon_k.$$

Letting $k \to \infty$, since $\varepsilon_k \to 0$, we conclude

$$\left| \int_T f(z)\,dz \right| = 0,$$

namely

$$\int_T f(z)\,dz = 0,$$

as required. □

Cauchy's Theorem

Last time, we defined what a complex line integrals, and proved the Fundamental Theorem of Calculus for Line Integrals (also known as the Fundamental theorem of line integrals). If $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ has a primitive $F(z) : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$. That is, to say $F'(z) = f(z)$. Then

$$\int_\gamma f(z)dz = F(z(b)) - F(z(a))$$

Which is a consequence of the Fundamental theorem of calculus for real integrals. Moreover, if $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ has a primitive then

$$\int_\gamma f(z) = 0$$

For any closed $\gamma \subseteq \Omega$. Then we proved Goursat's theorem, which states that for $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ a holomorphic function and T is a triangle with its interior in Ω, then

$$\int_T f(z)\ dz = 0$$

We state a theorem of which Goursat's theorem is a special case.

Theorem. (Cauchy's theorem in a disk) Suppose that $f : \mathbb{D} \to \mathbb{C}$ is a holomorphic function. Then f has a primitive in $\mathbb{D}$. In particular, this implies that

$$\int_\gamma f(z)\ dz = 0$$

For every closed curve $\gamma \subseteq \mathbb{D}$.

Example. (A holomorphic function without a primitive) Take $\frac{1}{z} : \mathbb{C}^* \to \mathbb{C}$, we previously showed that

$$\int_{C_r} \frac{dz}{z} = 2\pi i \neq 0$$

Proof of Cauchy's Theorem. The idea is to construct a primitive of f. Given a point z, we construct a path $0 \mapsto z$, let us call it γ_z. Given $z + h$, we construct γ_{z+h} by first following γ_z from $0 \mapsto z$, and then following the straight line segment from $z \mapsto z + h$ where $h \in \mathbb{C}$ is small enough, denoted by $\gamma_{[z,z+h]}$. By additivity of line integrals, one has that

$$\int_{\gamma_{z+h}} f(w)\, dw = \int_{\gamma_z} f(w)\, dw + \int_{\gamma_{[z,z+h]}} f(w)\, dw.$$

If we were to have a primitive it would be given by

$$F(z) = \int_{\gamma_z} f(w)\, dw$$

Claim: $F'(z) = f(z)$

Proof of claim: We compute the complex derivative of F. To this end,

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{F(z+h) - F(z)}{h} &= \frac{\int_{\gamma_{z+h}} f(w)\ dw - \int_{\gamma_z} f(w)\ dw}{h} \\ &= \frac{\int_{\gamma_{[z,z+h]}} f(w)\ dw}{h} \end{aligned} \qquad \text{(Goursat's theorem)}$$

This implies that

$$\left|\frac{F(z+h)-F(z)}{h}-f(z)\right| = \left|\frac{\int_{\gamma_{z+h}} f(w)\ dw - \int_{\gamma_z} f(w)\ dw}{h}\right|$$
$$\leq \sup_{w\in\gamma_{[z,z+h]}} |f(w)-f(z)| \to 0$$

as $h \to 0$. □

Which proves the theorem.

□

Now, one might be wondering why does this not work for $\frac{1}{z}$. The thing is, it is not defined on 0, but later we will see how can it have a primitive. More on this when we study poles. In the proof of Cauchy's theorem, we used a particular property of disks that allowed us to construct the path, that is convexity, we realize that path connectedness is not enough due to the fact that $\frac{1}{z}$ does not have a primitive on $\mathbb{C}^*$ and it is a path connected set.

Remark: Goursat's theorem still holds if we replace triangles by polygonal domains. By polygonal domain, we mean a domain that is a polygon (not necessarily convex). The observation we can make is that if we have a polygonal domain, we can decompose into a union of triangles. So, since Goursat's theorem holds for triangle, it must hold for such domains. See this week's homework for more details.

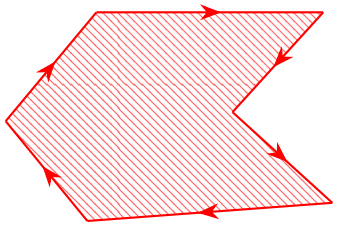


Figure 10: A polygon

Note that the same thing holds if $\mathbb{D}$ is replaced by a convex open set. The proof is the same. Cauchy's theorem holds in more generality. This generality will be on a **toy contour**, namely a simple closed curve with an interior.

Example. Any convex set.

Example.

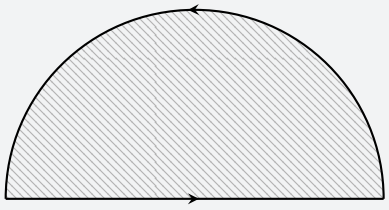


Figure 11: A semicircle

Example.

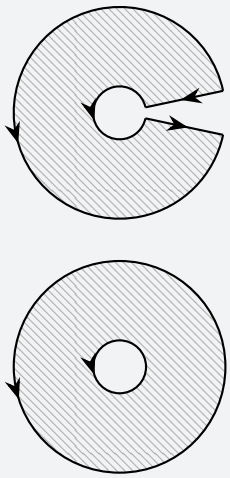


Figure 12: Some examples of keyhole contours, which are going to be very important for this course.

We don't really care about the definition of the interior here, but for anyone who is interested, see the Jordan curve theorem. This theorem states that every closed curve has a well defined interior that is simply connected. Now the claim is that Cauchy's theorem extends to these regions.

Theorem. (**Cauchy's theorem**) Suppose that $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is a holomorphic function. Then f has a primitive in Ω. In particular, this implies that

$$\int_\gamma f(z)\ dz = 0$$

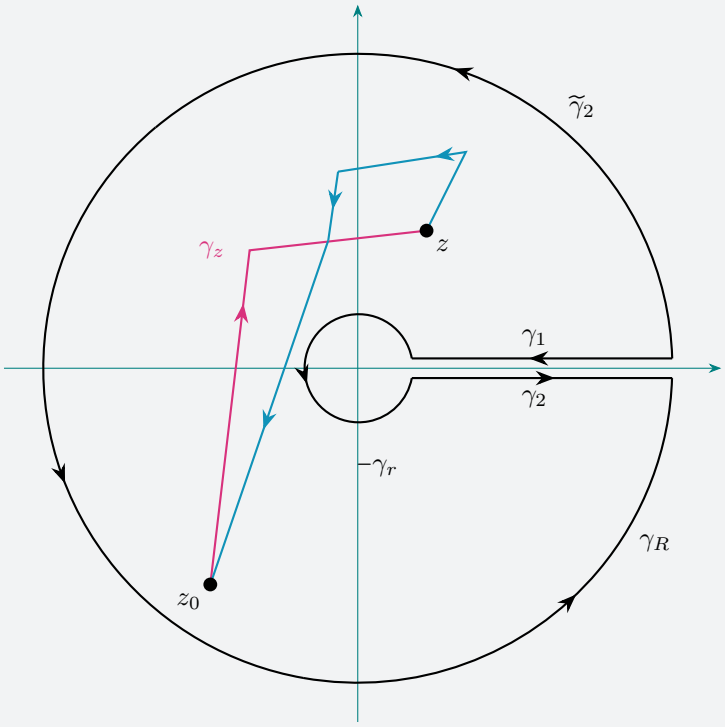
For every closed curve $\gamma \subseteq \Omega$.

The proof idea is roughly the same, but now we can use Goursat's theorem on polygonal domains.

Example. Suppose that $f(z) = \frac{1}{z}$, this is defined everywhere except at the origin. We can draw a toy contour where the outer one goes along the circle of radius R, we denote this by C_R, and the inner one goes along a circle of radius r, we also denote this by C_r. We imitate the same process as before, fix a point z_0 and another point z. Define

$$F(z) = \int_{\gamma_{z_0}} f(w)\, dw$$

We choose a piecewise curve that connects these two points and we will choose another one. We claim that it does not matter which curve do we end up choosing. To this end, note that we can write this path as a sum of polygons. The point is, if we pick the domain to be something like an annuli, then we know that $1/z$ does not have a primitive, and so this construction goes wrong.



Using some topology, we can say that one of the sets is simply-connected and the other is not. Furthermore, a similar argument shows that $F'(z) = f(z)$. Now, by Cauchy's theorem, it follows that

$$\int_{\gamma_R} \frac{dz}{z} - \int_{\gamma_r} \frac{dz}{z} + \int_{\gamma_1} \frac{dz}{z} + \int_{\gamma_2} \frac{dz}{z} = 0$$

Here γ_1 and γ_2 are the two segments connecting the inner circle C_r to the outer circle C_R, separated by a thin corridor of width $\varepsilon > 0$ that we introduce so the contour avoids self-intersection. As $\varepsilon \to 0$, the two segments γ_1 and γ_2 come together and their contributions to the integral cancel, which leaves only the integrals over C_r and C_R. Now, letting $\varepsilon \to 0$, we get

$$\int_{C_r} \frac{dz}{z} = \int_{C_R} \frac{dz}{z} = 0$$

implying that

$$\int_{C_r} \frac{dz}{z} = \int_{C_R} \frac{dz}{z}$$

Turns out that these ideas are very powerful. The above example is the most basic use of contour integration. We will see more examples of how to use these contours to evaluate integrals via Cauchy's theorem. We can use this to compute some hard integrals, but our life would be easy by using contour integration. Some of which arise from the theory of Fourier transform

Example. We compute

$$\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} e^{-\pi x^2 - 2\pi i x\xi}\, dx = h(\xi)$$

It is known that $h(1)$ is the Gaussian integral. To this end, it turns out that the right way to think of this, is we extend the function to a function on the complex plane, so we write $f(z) = e^{-\pi z^2}$, this is holomorphic in $\mathbb{C}$.

The claim is that this integral can be expressed as a line integral. Namely

$$\int_{\gamma_z} f(z)\ dz$$

Indeed, take $z(t) = t + i\xi$, our integral can now be written as

$$\begin{aligned}\int_{\gamma_z} f(z)\ dz &= \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} e^{-\pi(t+i\xi)^2}\ dt \\ &= \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} e^{-\pi t^2 - 2\pi i\xi t + \pi\xi^2}\ dt \\ &= h(\xi)e^{\pi\xi^2}\end{aligned}$$

Now, we can apply Cauchy's theorem, where we can integrate along the curve

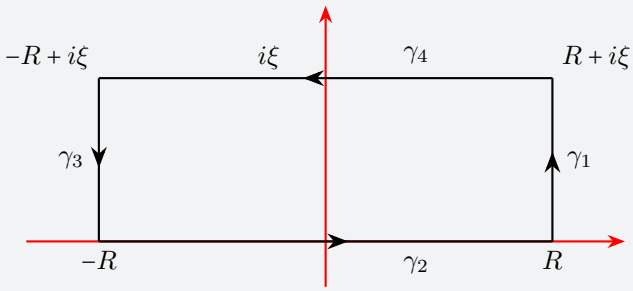


Figure 13: The contour we are integrating over.

Indeed, we have

$$\int_{\gamma_1} f(z)\,dz + \int_{\gamma_2} f(z)\,dz + \int_{\gamma_3} f(z)\,dz + \int_{\gamma_4} f(z)\,dz = 0,$$

implying that

$$\int_{\gamma_4} f(z)\,dz = -\int_{\gamma_1} f(z)\,dz - \int_{\gamma_2} f(z)\,dz - \int_{\gamma_3} f(z)\,dz.$$

Note that

$$\int_{\gamma_2} f(z)\,dz = \int_{-R}^{R} e^{-\pi t^2}\,dt$$

and

$$\int_{\gamma_3} f(z)\,dz = \int_{0}^{\xi} e^{-\pi(-R+it)^2}\,i\,dt.$$

For γ_1, we can take the parametrization $z(t) = R + it$, to get

$$\int_{\gamma_1} f(z)\,dz = i\int_{0}^{\xi} e^{-\pi R^2}\,e^{-2\pi i R t}\,e^{\pi t^2}\,dt.$$

Moreover, we have

$$\left|\int_{\gamma_1} f(z)\,dz\right| \le e^{-\pi R^2}\,|\xi|\,e^{\pi\xi^2}.$$

A similar argument holds for γ_3. Now, we get

$$\begin{aligned} h(\xi)e^{\pi\xi^2} &= \lim_{R\to\infty}\int_{\gamma_4} f(z)\,dz \\ &= -\lim_{R\to\infty}\Big(\int_{\gamma_1} f(z)\,dz + \int_{\gamma_3} f(z)\,dz\Big) - \lim_{R\to\infty}\int_{\gamma_2} f(z)\,dz \\ &= 1. \end{aligned}$$

Another Integral & Cauchy's Integral Formula

Last time, we talked about Cauchy's theorem, which says for the interior of a simple closed curve Ω, and $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ a holomorphic function. Then f has a primitive in Ω and

$$\int_\gamma f(z)\ dz = 0$$

For any closed curve $\gamma \subseteq \Omega$. And then we saw one example where we showed that the Fourier transform of a Gaussian is itself. So contour integration is very useful for evaluating some harder definite integrals, where we can just elevate to the complex plane and cleverly apply Cauchy's theorem.

"These things are like art. There is no Algorithm" - Freid Tong

Example. We use contour integration to evaluate

$$\int_0^\infty \frac{1-\cos x}{x^2}\ dx \tag{✯}$$

So, we want to elevate this to a function on $\mathbb{C}$ and then write it as a line integral. Recall that $e^z = e^x(\cos y + i \sin y)$. This suggests that if we were to evaluate a line integral, where this appears. Indeed, consider the function

$$f(z) = \frac{1-e^{iz}}{z^2}.$$

This is holomorphic in $\mathbb{C} \setminus 0$ since it is the quotient of 2 holomorphic functions and it is well defined on $\mathbb{C} \setminus 0$. The claim is that the real part of the integral along the real axis will give us (✯) in the limit. The contour we will be using is an indented semicircle with the smaller semicircle having radius ε near the origin with clockwise orientation and the larger semicircle with radius R with the counterclockwise orientation.

So Cauchy's theorem tells us that the integral along the boundary is 0. So, we have to integrate along γ_ε and γ_R. More precisely,

$$\int_{\gamma_1} + \int_{\gamma_2} = -\int_{\gamma_\varepsilon} - \int_{\gamma_R}.$$

We start by computing

$$\int_{\gamma_R} \frac{1-e^{iz}}{z^2}\ dz.$$

First, note that the norm of the numerator is bounded and the norm of the denominator grows like R^2, so we use the length estimate to obtain

$$\left| \int_{\gamma_R} \frac{1-e^{iz}}{z^2}\ dz \right| \le \text{Length}(\gamma_R) \sup_{\gamma_R} \frac{|1-e^{iz}|}{|z^2|} \le \pi R \frac{2}{R^2} = \frac{2\pi}{R} \to 0$$

as $R \to \infty$. Now, we evaluate the integral along γ_ε, this is a little more involved. We claim that for $|z| \ll 1$ we have that

$$e^z = 1 + z + O(|z|^2)$$

(we may believe this for now, we will come back to this when we discuss power series). So this tells us that

$$e^{iz} = 1 + iz + O(|z|^2).$$

When we plug that into the integral, we get

$$\int_{\gamma_\varepsilon} \frac{1-e^{iz}}{z^2}\ dz = \int_{\gamma_\varepsilon} -\frac{iz}{z^2}\ dz + \int_{\gamma_\varepsilon} \frac{O(|z|^2)}{z^2}\ dz.$$

Note that the second term is $o(\varepsilon)$. Now, we take a parameterization $z(t) = \varepsilon e^{-it}$, so that

$$z'(t) = -i\varepsilon e^{-it}$$

Thus

$$\begin{aligned}\int_{\gamma_\varepsilon} \frac{1-e^{iz}}{z^2}\,dz &= -i\int_{\gamma_\varepsilon}\frac{dz}{z} + o(\varepsilon)\\ &= -i\int_{\pi}^{2\pi}\frac{1}{\varepsilon e^{-it}}(-i)\varepsilon e^{-it}\,dt + o(\varepsilon)\\ &= -\pi + o(\varepsilon).\end{aligned}$$

Therefore,

$$\lim_{\varepsilon\to 0}\int_{\gamma_\varepsilon}\frac{1-e^{iz}}{z^2}\,dz = -\pi.$$

This implies that

$$\lim_{\substack{\varepsilon\to 0\\ R\to\infty}}\left(\int_{\gamma_1} f(z)\,dz + \int_{\gamma_2} f(z)\,dz\right) = \pi.$$

Taking the real part, we have

$$\begin{aligned}\pi &= \lim_{\substack{\varepsilon\to 0\\ R\to\infty}} \operatorname{Re}\left(\int_{\gamma_1} f(z)\,dz + \int_{\gamma_2} f(z)\,dz\right)\\ &= \lim_{\substack{\varepsilon\to 0\\ R\to\infty}}\left(\int_{\varepsilon}^{R}\frac{1-\cos x}{x^2}\,dx + \int_{-R}^{-\varepsilon}\frac{1-\cos x}{x^2}\,dx\right)\\ &= 2\int_0^\infty \frac{1-\cos x}{x^2}\,dx.\end{aligned}$$

Hence

$$\int_0^\infty \frac{1-\cos x}{x^2}\,dx = \frac{\pi}{2}.$$

Now, we will start talking about another consequence of Cauchy's theorem, namely Cauchy's Integral Formula.

Theorem. (Cauchy's Integral Formula) Suppose that $f:\Omega\to\mathbb{C}$ is holomorphic, and $\overline{D_r(z_0)}\subseteq\Omega$. Then

$$f(z) = \frac{1}{2\pi i}\int_C \frac{f(\zeta)}{\zeta - z}\,d\zeta$$

Where $C = \partial D_r(z_0)$ with the counterclockwise orientation and $z \in D_r(z_0)$.

The idea behind the proof is quite simple. From Cauchy's theorem, we want to evaluate the integral

$$\int_C \frac{f(\zeta)}{\zeta - z}\,d\zeta \tag{\#}$$

This should not depend on the circle C as long as z is in the interior. Suppose that there is a single pole at z. the claim is that if we integrate over this circle and then over another circle, the integrals must be equal! Since we can connect a small circle around z to C with a corridor of width $\delta > 0$, we obtain a toy contour on which $f(\zeta)/(\zeta - z)$ is holomorphic (since we excluded the singularity at z by the smaller circle). By Cauchy's theorem, the integral over this toy contour is 0. As the corridor width $\delta \to 0$, the two connecting segments cancel, and so the integrals over the larger and smaller circles agree. To be continued next week.

Proof of Cauchy's Integral Formula and Some Consequences

Last time, we started discussing Cauchy's integral formula. So this is where we will start today. This is one of the most important results in complex analysis, and it will tell us everything that we need to know about holomorphic functions. Recall that for f a holomorphic function on $\Omega \to \mathbb{C}$. $\overline{D_r(z_0)} \subseteq \Omega$. Then for any $z \in D_r(z_0)$

$$f(z) = \frac{1}{2\pi i} \int_C \frac{f(\zeta)}{\zeta - z} d\zeta.$$

Where C is the boundary of $D_r(z_0)$ with the counterclockwise orientation.

There are many implications of this result, and we will see quite a few, if you notice, on the left side we have a holomorphic function, but on the right side, we have an integral, and we have a term $\zeta - z$, which is smooth, so it turns out that being holomorphic is more than just having one derivative. In fact, holomorphic functions are infinitely differentiable.

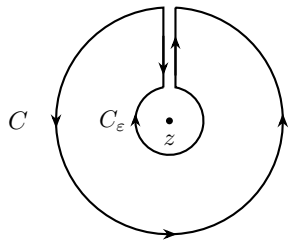


Figure 14: The keyhole contour inside we are integrating over, This consists of an outer circle C, and a smaller circle C_ε with radius ε, the corridor here has width δ.

Proof of Cauchy's Integral Formula. By Cauchy's theorem, we want to show that

$$\frac{1}{2\pi i} \int_C \frac{f(\zeta)}{\zeta - z} d\zeta = \frac{1}{2\pi i} \int_{C_\varepsilon(z)} \frac{f(\zeta)}{\zeta - z} d\zeta$$

Now, we want to evaluate the integral on the RHS. To this end, we parametrize $C_\varepsilon(z)$ by $\zeta(t) = z + \varepsilon e^{it}$. This implies that the right hand side

$$\frac{1}{2\pi i} \int_0^{2\pi} \varepsilon \frac{f(\zeta(t))}{\varepsilon e^{it}} e^{it} \, dt = \frac{1}{2\pi i} \int_0^{2\pi} f(z + \varepsilon e^{it}) \, dt \tag{$\bigstar$}$$

Note that ($\bigstar$) is the mean value formula. So we are averaging around the parametrized curve. So now, if $\varepsilon \to 0$, this becomes

$$\frac{1}{2\pi} \int_0^{2\pi} f(z) \, dz = f(z).$$

□

Example. We compute the integral

$$\int_C \frac{1}{z} \, dz$$

Where C is the circle containing 0 in the interior. By Cauchy's integral formula, it follows that this is just $2\pi i$.

Example. Suppose that C = circle of radius 2 about the origin. We compute

$$\int_C \frac{\zeta^2+1}{\zeta-1}\,d\zeta$$

Cauchy's integral formula (applied to f at $f(\zeta)=\zeta^2+1$, evaluated at 1) tells us that

$$\int_C \frac{\zeta^2+1}{\zeta-1}\,d\zeta = 2\pi i f(1) = 4\pi i$$

Example. We consider the same curve as the previous example, but this time we are integrating

$$\int_C \frac{\zeta^2+1}{\zeta-3}\,d\zeta$$

We get 0 by Cauchy's theorem, since 3 is not inside the disc we are integrating over.

We state another consequence of Cauchy's integral formula.

Proposition. (Mean Value Identity) If f is holomorphic on Ω an open set containing $\overline{D_r(z_0)}$, then

$$f(z_0) = \frac{1}{2\pi}\int_0^{2\pi} f(z_0+re^{it})\,dt$$

This is an immediate consequence of CIF, by taking $C=\partial D_r(z_0)$. Basically it says that f is always equal to the average value around a circle. Note that this does not hold for $\mathbb{R}$-differentiable functions, even smooth functions. Another consequence that was hinted at earlier in the lecture, was that f can be represented by an integral, where the dependence is on ζ, moreover, it turns out that we can differentiate infinitely many times.

To prove this, differentiate the Cauchy integral formula to obtain

$$\begin{aligned} f'(z) &= \lim_{h\to 0}\frac{f(z+h)-f(z)}{h} \\ &= \lim_{h\to 0}\frac{1}{2\pi i}\int_C \frac{f(\zeta)}{h}\left(\frac{1}{\zeta-z-h}-\frac{1}{\zeta-z}\right)d\zeta \\ &= \lim_{h\to 0}\frac{1}{2\pi i}\int_C \frac{f(\zeta)}{(\zeta-z-h)(\zeta-z)}\,d\zeta. \end{aligned}$$

Since z lies in the interior of C, we have

$$d = \min_{\zeta\in C}|\zeta-z| > 0.$$

For $|h| < d/2$, the denominator $\zeta-z-h$ is bounded away from zero on C. Moreover,

$$\frac{1}{(\zeta-z-h)(\zeta-z)} \rightrightarrows \frac{1}{(\zeta-z)^2}$$

for $\zeta\in C$ as $h\to 0$. so by uniform convergence, we can interchange the limit and the integral. Hence,

$$f'(z) = \frac{1}{2\pi i}\int_C \frac{f(\zeta)}{(\zeta-z)^2}\,d\zeta.$$

We now differentiate again to get

$$\begin{aligned} f''(z) &= \lim_{h\to 0} \frac{f'(z+h) - f'(z)}{h} \\ &= \lim_{h\to 0} \frac{1}{2\pi i} \int_C \frac{f(\zeta)}{h} \left[\frac{1}{(\zeta - z - h)^2} - \frac{1}{(\zeta - z)^2} \right] d\zeta \\ &= \lim_{h\to 0} \frac{1}{2\pi i} \int_C f(\zeta) \frac{2(\zeta - z) - h}{(\zeta - z - h)^2 (\zeta - z)^2} \, d\zeta. \end{aligned}$$

Again, the integrand converges uniformly on C to

$$\frac{2f(\zeta)}{(\zeta - z)^3}.$$

Interchanging the limit and the integral gives

$$f''(z) = \frac{2!}{2\pi i} \int_C \frac{f(\zeta)}{(\zeta - z)^3} \, d\zeta = \frac{2}{2\pi i} \int_C \frac{f(\zeta)}{(\zeta - z)^3} \, d\zeta$$

similarly, we differentiate again to get

$$\begin{aligned} f'''(z) &= \lim_{h\to 0} \frac{f''(z+h) - f''(z)}{h} \\ &= \lim_{h\to 0} \frac{2!}{2\pi i} \int_C \frac{f(\zeta)}{h} \left[\frac{1}{(\zeta - z - h)^3} - \frac{1}{(\zeta - z)^3} \right] d\zeta. \end{aligned}$$

The difference quotient in the integrand converges uniformly on C to

$$\frac{3}{(\zeta - z)^4}.$$

hence

$$f'''(z) = \frac{3!}{2\pi i} \int_C \frac{f(\zeta)}{(\zeta - z)^4} \, d\zeta = \frac{6}{2\pi i} \int_C \frac{f(\zeta)}{(\zeta - z)^4} \, d\zeta.$$

So by induction we get

$$\begin{aligned} f^{(n+1)}(z) &= \frac{n!}{2\pi i} \int_C \frac{(n+1) f(\zeta)}{(\zeta - z)^{n+2}} \, d\zeta \\ &= \frac{(n+1)!}{2\pi i} \int_C \frac{f(\zeta)}{(\zeta - z)^{n+2}} \, d\zeta. \end{aligned}$$

Corollary. If $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is a holomorphic function, and $\Omega \supseteq \overline{D_r}(z_0)$. Then f is smooth.

It turns out that life is even better than this! We know from MAT157 that we can talk about smooth functions which are infinitely differentiable, but we have an even better class. Namely analytic functions. So now we will define the notion of being analytic.

Definition. A (complex) **power series** is a formal sum of the form

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n (z - z_0)^n$$

Here z_0 denotes the center, everything here is complex!

Example. The **geometric series**

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} z^n$$

The main thing to ask is when does this power series converge? There is the standard trick from calculus. Recall that if this series converges, then it must be equal to the limit

$$\lim_{N\to\infty} \sum_{n=0}^{N} z^n$$

We can use the telescoping method

$$\lim_{N\to\infty} \sum_{n=0}^{N} z^n = \lim_{N\to\infty} \frac{1 - z^{N+1}}{1 - z}$$

Let us ignore the case where $z = 1$ then we have

$$\frac{1 - \lim_{N\to\infty} z^{N+1}}{1 - z}$$

$$= \begin{cases} \frac{1}{1-z} & \text{if } |z| < 1 \\ \\ \text{Diverges if } |z| > 1 \end{cases}$$

For $z = 1$. The details are left as an exercise, The boundary case is treated separately.

Theorem. **(Radius of Convergence)** Given a power series $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n(z - z_0)^n$. There exists an $R \in [0, \infty]$ such that

1. $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n(z - z_0)^n$ converges absolutely if $|z - z_0| < R$
2. $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n(z - z_0)^n$ diverges if $|z - z_0| > R$.

Moreover, $R = \frac{1}{L}$ where $L = \limsup_{n\to\infty} |a_n|^{1/n}$

Recall now that $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} w_i$ where $w_i \in \mathbb{C}$ converges absolutely if $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} |w_i| < \infty$.

Proof. Without loss of generality, assume that $z_0 = 0$ is the center. Now suppose that $|z| < R - \varepsilon$. Then we know that

$$\limsup_{n\to\infty} |a_n|^{1/n} = \frac{1}{R},$$

so

$$\limsup_{n\to\infty} |a_n|^{1/n}|z| = \frac{|z|}{R} < \frac{R - \varepsilon}{R} = 1 - \frac{\varepsilon}{R} \leq 1 - \delta$$

for some $\delta > 0$. This implies that there exists N such that for $n \geq N$, it follows that $|a_n|^{1/n}|z| \leq 1 - \delta$. Then test for absolute convergence

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} |a_n||z|^n = \sum_{n=0}^{N} |a_n||z|^n + \sum_{n=N+1}^{\infty} |a_n||z|^n \leq C + \sum_{n=N+1}^{\infty} (1 - \delta)^n$$

Which proves the first case. Now, to prove the second case, we note that if $|z| > R$, then $|z| > R + \varepsilon$ for $\varepsilon > 0$

$$\limsup_{n\to\infty} |a_n|^{1/n} = \frac{1}{R}$$

so

$$\limsup_{n\to\infty} |a_n|^{1/n}|z| = \frac{|z|}{R} > \frac{R+\varepsilon}{R} = 1 + \frac{\varepsilon}{R} \geq 1 + \delta$$

for $\delta > 0$. This implies that there is a subsequence n_k such that $|a_{n_k}|^{1/n_k}|z| \geq 1 + \frac{\delta}{2}$ for any $k = 1, \ldots$. Implying that $|a_{n_k}||z|^{n_k} \geq \left(1 + \frac{\delta}{2}\right)^{n_k} \to \infty$. So the power series cannot converge. □

On Thursday, we will show that a holomorphic function can have a power series expansion. Moreover, we will also show another property of power series. It turns out that inside the disc, the convergence is really nice to the point we can differentiate and integrate term by term.

Theorem. If $f(z)$ is holomorphic in $D_R(z_0)$. Then we can write

$$f(z) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n z^n$$

Where R is the radius of convergence. $f'(z) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} n a_n z^{n-1}$. The power series also has radius of convergence R.

Power Series Strikes Back!

Last time, we proved Cauchy's integral formula, and as a consequence we know that holomorphic functions are smooth, even better, we will see that they are analytic! Recall that a (complex) power series is a sum of the form

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n (z - z_0)^n$$

where $a_n \in \mathbb{C}$ and z_0 is the center. We proved the radius of convergence theorem: Given a power series $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n (z-z_0)^n$. There exists an $R \in [0, \infty]$ such that

1. $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n (z - z_0)^n$ converges absolutely if $|z - z_0| < R$
2. $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n (z - z_0)^n$ diverges if $|z - z_0| > R$.

Moreover, $R = \dfrac{1}{L}$ where $L = \limsup_{n\to\infty} |a_n|^{1/n}$.

Similar to the case of real variables, we can differentiate a complex power series[1] term by term. If $f(z)$ is holomorphic in $D_R(0)$. Then we can write

$$f(z) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n z^n \tag{$\bigstar$}$$

Where R is the radius of convergence. Then the derivative also has a power series expansion, namely $f'(z) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} n a_n z^{n-1}$ in $D_R(0)$. This power series also has radius of convergence R.

Proof. First, we show that the power series of $f'(z)$ has the same radius of convergence as $f(z)$. To this end, $R = \dfrac{1}{\limsup_{n\to\infty} |a_n|^{1/n}}$ and $\limsup_{n\to\infty} n^{1/n} |a_n|^{1/n} = \limsup_{n\to\infty} |a_n|^{1/n}$. So the power series $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} n a_n z^{n-1}$ has the same radius of convergence as ($\bigstar$). Let $g(z) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} n a_n z^{n-1}$. We claim that $g(z) = f'(z)$ for all $|z| < R$. Indeed, we write $f(z) = \sum_{n=0}^{N} a_n z^n + \sum_{n=N+1}^{\infty} a_n z^n$. More precisely,

$$f(z) = S_N(z) + E_N(z).$$

This implies that

$$f'(z) = \sum_{n=1}^{N} n a_n z^{n-1} + E_N'(z).$$

Claim: For $|z| < R$, then for any $\varepsilon > 0$, there exists N_1 such that whenever $N > N_1$, it follows that $|E_N'(z)| < \varepsilon$.

Proof of Claim. Note that

$$E_N'(z) = \lim_{h\to 0} \frac{E_N(z+h) - E_N(z)}{h}$$

[1] Here we assume it is centered at 0

So,

$$\begin{aligned}\left|\frac{E_N(z+h)-E_N(z)}{h}\right| &= \left|\sum_{n=N+1}^{\infty} a_n \frac{E_N(z+h)-E_N(z)}{h}\right| \\ &= \sum_{n=N+1}^{\infty} \left|\frac{E_N(z+h)-E_N(z)}{h}\right| |a_n| \\ &= \sum_{n=N+1}^{\infty} |a_n|\left(|z+h|^{n-1}+|z+h|^{n-2}|z|+\cdots+|z|^{n-1}\right) \\ &\le \sum_{n=N+1}^{\infty} |a_n| n |R-\varepsilon|^{n-1} \qquad \text{(if } h \ll 1 \text{ is sufficiently small)}\end{aligned}$$

Now since $R = (\limsup_{n\to\infty} |a_n|^{1/n})^{-1}$ this is a convergent sum, which means we can pick N_1 such that whenever $N > N_1$, it follows that $|E_N'(z)| < \varepsilon$. □

□

Now that our review of power series is over, we go back to holomorphic functions. Now, we want to show that if $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ then it is **analytic** if for any point $z_0 \in \Omega$, $f(z) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n (z-z_0)^n$ in $D_r(z_0)$, $r > 0$. Analytic functions are so powerful, we can say that it gets as good as we want it to be in terms of smoothness, etc.

Theorem. Suppose that $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is holomorphic, and $D_r(z_0) \subseteq \Omega$. Then

$$f(z) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{f^{(n)}(z_0)}{n!}(z-z_0)^n$$

for $|z - z_0| < r$

So as long as f is defined on the ball, then the radius of convergence can be bigger than r. The radius of convergence can get as big as it can get.

Example. Before we can prove this theorem, recall from last lecture that

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} z^n = \frac{1}{1-z}$$

for $|z| < 1$. So $f(z) = \frac{1}{(1-z)}$, then

$$\begin{aligned} f'(z) &= \frac{1}{(1-z)^2} \\ f''(z) &= \frac{2}{(1-z)^3} \\ &\vdots \\ f^{(n)}(z) &= \frac{n!}{(1-z)^{n+1}}\end{aligned}$$

More Consequences of CIF and Analytic Continuation

Last week we focused on Cauchy's integral formula, which states that for f a holomorphic function on $\Omega \to \mathbb{C}$. $\overline{D_r(z_0)} \subseteq \Omega$. Then for any $z \in D_r(z_0)$

$$f(z) = \frac{1}{2\pi i} \int_C \frac{f(\zeta)}{\zeta - z} d\zeta.$$

Where C is the boundary of $D_r(z_0)$ with the counterclockwise orientation. Moreover, we proved that we can differentiate this formula to obtain the following form for higher order derivatives:

$$f^{(n)}(z) = \frac{n!}{2\pi i} \int_C \frac{f(\zeta)}{(\zeta - z)^{n+1}} \, d\zeta$$

Our goal now is to show that holomorphic functions are analytic, but first we start with a few basic applications:

Theorem. **(Cauchy's Inequality)** Suppose $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is holomorphic, $\overline{D_r(z_0)} \subseteq \Omega$, and $C = \partial D_r(z_0)$. Then

$$\left|f^{(n)}(z_0)\right| \leq \frac{n!}{2\pi} \int_C \frac{|f(\zeta)|}{|\zeta - z_0|^{n+1}} |\mathrm{d}\ell| \leq \frac{n!}{2\pi} r^{-(n+1)} \, 2\pi r \sup_C |f| = \frac{n!}{r^n} \sup_C |f|.$$

Corollary. **(Liouville's Theorem)** Suppose that $f : \mathbb{C} \to \mathbb{C}$ is entire, namely f is holomorphic and well defined on all of $\mathbb{C}$, and is also bounded, then f is constant.

Proof of Liouville's theorem. Fix $z \in \mathbb{C}$ and suppose that $|f| \leq M$. Since f is entire, $\overline{D_R(z)} \subseteq \mathbb{C}$ for every $R > 0$. Cauchy's inequality for f' gives us

$$|f'(z)| \leq \frac{1}{R} \sup_{\partial D_R(z)} |f| \leq \frac{M}{R} \xrightarrow[R \to \infty]{} 0.$$

Hence $f' \equiv 0$, so f is constant. □

We discuss another important, and basic result which has to do with complex numbers. Recall how there is this dilemma in the real numbers where

$$x^2 + 1$$

has no real roots. So, the natural question is: Can the complex numbers guarantee roots for more general polynomials? The answer lies in the following theorem, which was first stated in MAT240

Theorem. **(Fundamental Theorem of Algebra)** Suppose $p(z) = a_n z^n + a_{n-1} z^{n-1} + \cdots + a_1 z + a_0$ is a non-constant polynomial, where $a_i \in \mathbb{C}$. Then p has a root.

Proof. This is an application of Liouville's theorem. Suppose towards a contradiction that p is non-constant with no roots. Then $1/p$ is entire. We show it is bounded. Indeed, by the reverse triangle inequality,

$$|p(z)| \geq \underbrace{|a_n||z|^n - \cdots - |a_1||z| - |a_0|}_{\text{real polynomial in } |z|}.$$

Since $|a_n| \neq 0$ and $n \geq 1$, the right-hand side tends to ∞ as $|z| \to \infty$, so there is $R > 0$ with $|p(z)| \geq 1$ for $|z| > R$. On the compact set $\overline{D_R(0)}$ the continuous function $|p|$ is positive, hence attains a minimum $c > 0$. Therefore

$$|p(z)| \geq \min(1, c) > 0 \quad \text{for all } z \in \mathbb{C},$$

so $|1/p| \leq 1/\min(1, c)$ is bounded. By Liouville's theorem $1/p$ is constant, hence p is constant, contradicting that p is non-constant. □

This is a neat, complex analytic proof of this result, there are several other proofs of this. But we can see that lots of things follow by Cauchy's integral formula. Now, we want to talk about the analyticity of holomorphic functions. Recall that a function $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is called (complex)-analytic if for any z_0 in Ω, we can write

$$f(z) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n (z - z_0)^n$$

in a neighborhood of z_0. We also stated the following theorem

Theorem. If $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is holomorphic and $\overline{D_r(z_0)} \subseteq \Omega$, then

$$f(z) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{f^{(n)}(z_0)}{n!} (z - z_0)^n \qquad \text{for } z \in D_r(z_0).$$

Proof. Let $C = \partial D_r(z_0)$ with the counterclockwise orientation. By the Cauchy integral formula,

$$f(z) = \frac{1}{2\pi i} \int_C \frac{f(\zeta)}{\zeta - z} \, d\zeta$$

for any $z \in D_r(z_0)$. We want to write the integrand in terms of a power series. To this end, note that

$$\frac{1}{\zeta - z} = \frac{1}{\zeta - z_0 - (z - z_0)} = \frac{1}{\zeta - z_0} \cdot \frac{1}{1 - \frac{z - z_0}{\zeta - z_0}}.$$

For $\zeta \in C$ we have $|\zeta - z_0| = r$, so $\left|\frac{z - z_0}{\zeta - z_0}\right| < 1$ is equivalent to saying $|z - z_0| < r$. Hence

$$\frac{1}{1 - \frac{z - z_0}{\zeta - z_0}} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \left(\frac{z - z_0}{\zeta - z_0} \right)^n.$$

So we can write the Cauchy integral formula as

$$f(z) = \frac{1}{2\pi i} \int_C \left(\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{f(\zeta)}{(\zeta - z_0)^{n+1}} (z - z_0)^n \right) d\zeta.$$

We claim that we can exchange the sum and the integral to get

$$f(z) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \left(\frac{1}{2\pi i} \int_C \frac{f(\zeta)}{(\zeta - z_0)^{n+1}} \, d\zeta \right) (z - z_0)^n.$$

To this end, it suffices to show that

$$\int_C \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{|f(\zeta)|}{|\zeta - z_0|^{n+1}} |z - z_0|^n \, \mathrm{d}\ell < \infty.$$

Let $M = \sup_C |f|$, which is finite since C is compact and f is continuous. Indeed, since $|\zeta - z_0| = r$ on C, note that

$$\frac{|f(\zeta)|}{|\zeta - z_0|^{n+1}} |z - z_0|^n \leq \frac{M}{r^{n+1}} |z - z_0|^n.$$

Since $|z - z_0| < r$, it follows that $\frac{|z - z_0|}{r} \leq 1 - \varepsilon$ for some $\varepsilon > 0$, and so

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{|f(\zeta)|}{|\zeta - z_0|^{n+1}} |z - z_0|^n \leq \frac{M}{r} \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} (1 - \varepsilon)^n < \infty.$$

Since C has finite length, the integral above is finite, which justifies exchanging the sum and the integral. Finally, by the derivative form of the Cauchy integral,

$$\frac{1}{2\pi i}\int_C \frac{f(\zeta)}{(\zeta - z_0)^{n+1}}\, d\zeta = \frac{f^{(n)}(z_0)}{n!},$$

so

$$f(z) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{f^{(n)}(z_0)}{n!}(z - z_0)^n,$$

concluding the proof. □

Remark: We used the Weierstrass M-test. (my goat)

This tells us that entire functions are also analytic, and they are convergent on any disc of convergence of any radius, so it has an infinite radius of convergence.

Example. Consider the exponential

$$e^z = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{f^{(n)}}{n!} z^n = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{z^n}{n!}$$

for any $z \in \mathbb{C}$. This agrees with the power series defined for the real exponential.

Now, we shift gears towards analytic continuation! This is another rigidity property of holomorphic functions.

Theorem. (Analytic Continuation) Suppose that $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is holomorphic and Ω is connected. If there exists distinct $z_k \in \Omega$ such that $\lim_{k\to\infty} z_k = z_\infty \in \Omega$ and $f(z_k) = 0$ for all k. Then $f \equiv 0$ in Ω.

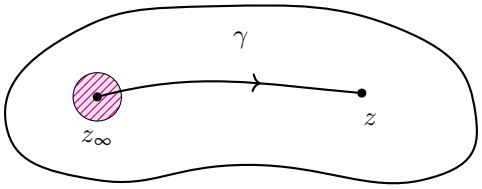
Proof. We have to harness the analyticity of f, suppose towards a contradiction that $f \not\equiv 0$. By analyticity, we get

$$f(z) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n (z - z_\infty)^n$$

now, if all $a_n = 0$. Then f is 0 on a neighborhood of z_∞, and then connectedness gives us $f \equiv 0$, which is a contradiction. Hence, there exists a smallest k suich that $a_k \neq 0$. Moreover, we can write

$$f(z) = (z - z_\infty)^k \underbrace{\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_{n+k}(z - z_\infty)^k}_{g(z)}$$

Now, since $g(z_\infty)$, it follows from continuity that there is a neighborhood U of z_∞ on which $g(z) \neq 0$. Then $f(z) = 0$ for all $z \in U$. Implying that $z = z_\infty$. But $z_j \to z_\infty$, and each z_j is distinct. So, for large enough j, we have $z_j \in U$ where $z_j \neq z_\infty$, while $f(z_j) = 0$. Which again gives us a contradiction. Therefore f must be identically 0. □



We can use a different argument, since Ω is open and connected, we know it is path connected, so we show that f vanishes along γ in Ω. Indeed, let $t_0 = \inf\{t : f(\gamma(t)) \neq 0\}$, then take $t_k \nearrow t_0$ as $k \to \infty$. Now let $\widetilde{z_k} = \gamma(t_k) \to \widetilde{z_\infty} = \gamma(t_0)$. By the previous argument, we have that $f \equiv 0$ in $D_r(\widetilde{z_\infty})$ for some $r > 0$. Which is a contradiction.

Corollary. If $f, g : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ are holomorphic functions and Ω is open and connected. If $\lim_{k\to\infty} z_k = z_\infty \in \Omega$, $z_k \in \Omega$., and $f(z_k) = g(z_k)$. Then $f \equiv g$ in Ω.

Definition. Suppose that we have a holomorphic function $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$, and $F : \Omega' \to \mathbb{C}$, is another holomorphic function and moreover, Ω, Ω' are open connected sets with $\Omega \subseteq \Omega'$. Then F is an **analytic continuation** of f if

$$F|_\Omega = f$$

Sequences of Holomorphic Functions

We saw some applications of Cauchy's integral formula, the most important of which was that holomorphic functions are analytic, unlike smooth real valued functions, which need not be analytic. The question that we want to discuss today is: what survives in taking limits of holomorphic functions? Say we take a sequence of holomorphic functions that converges to a limit; is the limit function holomorphic? In MAT157, we saw that if a sequence of differentiable functions converges uniformly, the limit function is continuous but need not be differentiable. We will see that in complex analysis, more properties are preserved.

Theorem. **(Morera's Theorem)** Suppose that $f : \mathbb{D} \to \mathbb{C}$ is continuous, and

$$\int_T f(z)\ dz = 0$$

for all triangles $T \subseteq \mathbb{D}$. Then f is holomorphic.

This is the converse of Goursat's theorem, so combining these two directions, we see that we can express holomorphic functions in terms of integrals. The proof follows roughly from everything we have done previously.

Proof. We summon the proof of Cauchy's theorem to obtain a primitive for f in D. That construction only uses $\int_T f\ dz = 0$ for triangles T, which is our hypothesis. So

$$F' = f \qquad (F : D \to \mathbb{C} \text{ is holomorphic}).$$

In particular, f is the derivative of a holomorphic function F. Since holomorphic functions have infinitely many complex derivatives, thanks to Cauchy's integral formula, $F' = f$ is itself holomorphic. □

A consequence of this is that the uniform limit of holomorphic functions is holomorphic. Namely, if $f_j : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is a sequence of holomorphic functions and

$$\lim_{j\to\infty} \sup_{z\in\Omega} |f_j(z) - f(z)| = 0$$

for some $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$, then f is holomorphic.

Note that f is continuous, since it is the uniform limit of continuous functions. Let $D \subseteq \Omega$ be a disc and $T \subseteq D$ a triangle.

By Goursat's theorem $\int_T f_j\ dz = 0$ for all j, and

$$\left|\int_T f\ dz\right| = \left|\int_T f\ dz - \int_T f_j\ dz\right| \leq \sup_T |f - f_j| \cdot \text{Length}(T) \xrightarrow[j\to\infty]{} 0.$$

That is,

$$0 = \int_T f_j\ dz \to \int_T f\ dz$$

so

$$\int_T f\ dz = 0.$$

By Morera's theorem f is holomorphic on D. The same argument works if $f_j \rightrightarrows f$ only on compact subsets, since each closed disc in Ω is compact.

Corollary. Power series are holomorphic inside their radius of convergence.

Proof. Note that

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n z^n = \lim_{N\to\infty} \sum_{n=0}^{N} a_n z^n$$

Point-wise in $D_R(0)$. We claim that this limit can be taken uniformly in $D_r(0)$[2] for any $r < R$. Indeed, one needs to show that the tail converges uniformly to 0 in $D_r(0)$. More precisely, we show that if $|z| < r$, then the tail $\sum_{n=N+1}^{\infty} a_n z^n \rightrightarrows 0.$ as $N \to \infty$

$$\begin{aligned}\left|\sum_{n=N+1}^{\infty} a_n z^n\right| &\le \sum_{n=N+1}^{\infty} |a_n||z|^n \\ &\le \sum_{n=N+1}^{\infty} |a_n| r^n\end{aligned}$$

Since $R = (\limsup_{n\to\infty} |a_n|^{1/n})^{-1}$ and $r < R$. We have that

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} |a_n| r^n < \infty$$

implies

$$\sum_{n=N+1}^{\infty} |a_n| r^n \to 0$$

as $N \to \infty$ □

In fact, this tells us that being holomorphic is the same thing as analytic: holomorphic implies analytic by the previous lecture, and analytic implies holomorphic by the corollary above.

Now going back to the question posed earlier, we have that uniform limits of holomorphic functions are holomorphic. Moreover, unlike the real case, the derivatives of these also converge, as the next theorem shows.

Theorem. Suppose that $f_j : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is a sequence of holomorphic functions, and $f_j \rightrightarrows f$ on compact subsets. Then

$$f_j' \rightrightarrows f'$$

on compact subsets.

Remark: This holds for all derivatives, namely $f_j^{(n)} \rightrightarrows f^{(n)}$ on compact subsets.

Proof. By the previous results f is holomorphic, so $f - f_j$ is holomorphic. By a covering argument (since every compact subset $K \subseteq \Omega$ is covered by finitely many discs $D_r(z_i)$ with $\overline{D_R(z_i)} \subseteq \Omega$ and $r < R$), it suffices to prove this on such discs. To this end, we fix z_0 with $\overline{D_R(z_0)} \subseteq \Omega$ and $r < R$. We need to bound the difference, let $\delta > 0$. Since $\overline{D_R(z_0)}$ is compact, there is J such that

$$|f_j - f| < \delta \quad \text{on } \overline{D_R(z_0)} \qquad \text{for all } j \ge J.$$

Let $r' = R - r$. For $z \in D_r(z_0)$ we have $\overline{D_{r'}(z)} \subseteq D_R(z_0)$. Cauchy's inequality for $f - f_j$ gives us for all $j \ge J$ and all $z \in D_r(z_0)$,

$$|f'(z) - f_j'(z)| \le \frac{1}{r'} \sup_{w\in\partial D_{r'}(z)} |f(w) - f_j(w)| \le \frac{\delta}{R - r}.$$

Since $\delta > 0$ was arbitrary, $f_j' \rightrightarrows f'$ on $D_r(z_0)$.

□

[2] We just assume that we are centered at 0

Zeros, Poles, and Meromorphic Functions

Some information:

1. Midterm on Tuesday (Exam Centre)
2. No homework, but there will be a practice midterm and problems
3. Zoom office hours on Monday
4. Similar in nature to homework (up to this week)

Last week, we discussed applications of Cauchy's integral formula (CIF), most importantly that holomorphic functions are analytic. Another application is the following: if f_k are holomorphic and $f_k \rightrightarrows f$ (uniformly on compact sets), then f is holomorphic. The same holds for the derivatives $f_k^{(j)}$.

We discuss singularities of holomorphic functions. The idea is to study the points where f is undefined. Near $z = 0$, consider

1. $\dfrac{e^z - 1}{z}$
2. $\dfrac{1}{z}$
3. $\dfrac{1}{z^2}$
4. $e^{1/z}$

Question: What can we say about the behavior of these functions near $z = 0$?

Answer:

1. For $\dfrac{e^z - 1}{z}$, it approaches a constant, so we can easily extend it using a Taylor series. Namely

$$\frac{e^z - 1}{z} = \frac{\left(1 + z + \frac{z^2}{2!} + \cdots\right) - 1}{z} = 1 + \frac{z}{2!} + \frac{z^2}{3!} + \cdots$$

   (We call these **removable singularities**.)

2. $\dfrac{1}{z}$ is not extendable holomorphically across $z = 0$. Indeed, if it were, then we could expand near $z = 0$ and the norm would be bounded, but it is not. So, we say that $\dfrac{1}{z}$ has a **pole** at $z = 0$, and it has order 1 (the number k such that $\left|\dfrac{1}{z^k}\right| \to \infty$).

3. $\dfrac{1}{z^2}$: same idea, but it has a pole of order 2 at $z = 0$.

4. $e^{1/z}$ is not a pole. Indeed, $x^N e^{1/x} \to \infty$ as $x \to 0^+$ (for every N). We call this an **essential singularity**.

Some definitions.

Definition. Suppose f is holomorphic on some domain. A point $a \in \mathbb{C}$ is an **isolated singularity** of f if f is defined on $D_r^*(a) = D_r(a) \setminus \{a\}$ for some $r > 0$.

We study these isolated singularities, and we classify them into 3 types

1. removable singularities
2. poles (tame singularities)
3. essential singularities (strange)

To study poles, we have to understand zeros of holomorphic functions (poles $\iff$ $\frac{1}{\text{zeros}}$).

Theorem. Suppose $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is holomorphic and $f(a) = 0$, where f is not identically zero near a. Then there exists $m > 0$ such that we can write

$$f(z) = (z-a)^m h(z),$$

where $h(z)$ is holomorphic on Ω and $h(a) \neq 0$. Moreover, m is the **order** of the zero at a.

Remark: This is a local statement.

Proof. Look at the Taylor expansion of f at $z = a$. Since $f(a) = 0$ and f is not identically zero near a, there is a smallest $m > 0$ with $b_m \neq 0$, and

$$f(z) = \sum_{n=m}^{\infty} b_n (z-a)^n = (z-a)^m \underbrace{\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} b_{n+m}(z-a)^n}_{h(z)},$$

and then $h(a) = b_m \neq 0$. □

"Now we are ready to define what a pole is... not quite." - Freid Tong.

A consequence of this is that if f has a zero of order m at a, then locally in a neighborhood of a we have

$$c\,|z-a|^m \leq |f(z)| \leq C\,|z-a|^m$$

for some $c, C > 0$.

Definition. Let f be holomorphic and let a be an isolated singularity of f. Then

1. If f can be defined at $z = a$ such that the resulting function is holomorphic on $D_r(a)$ for some $r > 0$, then f has a **removable singularity** at a.
2. f has a **pole of order** m at a if we can write

$$f(z) = \frac{h(z)}{(z-a)^m} \quad \text{in some } D_r^*(a),$$

   where h can be extended to $D_r(a)$ and $h(a) \neq 0$.
3. f has an **essential singularity** at a if it is neither removable nor a pole.

Remark: This is equivalent to $\dfrac{1}{f}$ having a removable singularity at a, and having a zero of order m after extending.)

Theorem. **(Riemann's Theorem on Removable Singularities)** If $a \in \mathbb{C}$ is an isolated singularity of f, and if there exist $C > 0$, $r > 0$ such that $|f(z)| \leq C$ for $z \in D_r^*(a)$, then a is a removable singularity of f.

Proof. Consider the function

$$g(z) = \begin{cases} (z-a)^2 f(z) & z \neq a, \\ 0 & z = a. \end{cases}$$

Then, we claim that g is holomorphic on $D_r(a)$ for some $r > 0$.

Proof of claim: On $D_r^*(a)$, g is holomorphic as a product of holomorphic functions. At $z = a$, we have

$$g'(a) = \lim_{z \to a} \frac{g(z) - g(a)}{z - a} = \lim_{z \to a} (z-a) f(z) = 0,$$

as $|f| \leq C$ in $D_r^*(a)$.

This implies that g has a Taylor series expansion at $z = a$ in $D_r(a)$, where $a_0 = a_1 = 0$. So

$$\begin{aligned} g(z) &= a_2(z-a)^2 + a_3(z-a)^3 + \cdots \\ &= \sum_{n=2}^{\infty} a_n (z-a)^n \\ &= (z-a)^2 \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_{n+2}(z-a)^n. \end{aligned}$$

The series $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_{n+2}(z-a)^n$ is equal to f on $D_r^*(a)$, and is well defined and holomorphic on $D_r(a)$. □

Definition. Given $\Omega \subseteq \mathbb{C}$ open, we say that f is **meromorphic** on Ω if there exists a countable collection $\{z_1, z_2, \dots\}$ (with no accumulation points in Ω) such that $f : \Omega \setminus \{z_1, z_2, \dots\} \to \mathbb{C}$ is holomorphic, and f only has poles at the z_i.

Exercise: Verify the following about meromorphic functions

1. Sums of meromorphic functions are meromorphic.
2. Products of meromorphic functions are meromorphic.
3. If $f \not\equiv 0$ is meromorphic, then $\dfrac{1}{f}$ is meromorphic.

Remark: Meromorphic functions (on a connected open set) form a field.

Example.

1. $\dfrac{1}{z}$
2. $\dfrac{1}{(z-a)^2}$

Theorem. **(Local Behavior of Meromorphic Functions)** If f has a pole of order m at a, then locally in

$D_r^*(a)$, f has a Laurent series expansion

$$f(z) = \sum_{n=-m}^{\infty} a_n (z-a)^n \qquad (a_{-m} \neq 0).$$

Remark: This is the same as

$$\frac{a_{-m}}{(z-a)^m} + \frac{a_{-m+1}}{(z-a)^{m-1}} + \cdots$$

Proof. Since f has a pole of order m at a, then

$$f(z) = \frac{h(z)}{(z-a)^m}, \qquad h(a) \neq 0,$$

and $h(z)$ is holomorphic on $D_r(a)$. This implies that

$$h(z) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} b_n (z-a)^n \quad \text{in } D_r(a),$$

and so

$$f(z) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} b_n (z-a)^{n-m}.$$

That is, $a_{n-m} = b_n$, and in particular $a_{-m} = b_0 = h(a) \neq 0$. □

Example. Let $f(z) = \dfrac{e^z}{z^3}$. This has a pole of order 3 about 0. Indeed, since $e^z = 1 + z + \dfrac{z^2}{2!} + \dfrac{z^3}{3!} + \cdots$, we have

$$f(z) = \underbrace{\frac{1}{z^3} + \frac{1}{z^2} + \frac{1}{2!\,z}}_{\text{3 negative terms in Laurent series}} + \frac{1}{3!} + \cdots$$

Essential singularities are wild, there are many ways to quantitatively study this wildness.

Theorem. **(Casorati-Weierstrass)** If f has an essential singularity at a, then $f(D_r^*(a))$ is dense in $\mathbb{C}$ for all $r > 0$.

So the punctured disc $D_r^*(a)$ is mapped by f into $\mathbb{C}$, and we claim that its image meets every disc $D_\varepsilon(w)$.

Proof. We want to show for every $w \in \mathbb{C}$ and $\varepsilon > 0$, there exists $z \in D_r^*(a)$ such that $|f(z) - w| < \varepsilon$.

Assume towards a contradiction that there exist $w \in \mathbb{C}$, $\varepsilon > 0$ and $r > 0$ such that $f(D_r^*(a)) \cap D_\varepsilon(w) = \varnothing$. Let $h(z) = f(z) - w$. Then $|h(z)| \geq \varepsilon$ for all $z \in D_r^*(a)$, so h is nonvanishing there, $\dfrac{1}{h}$ is holomorphic on $D_r^*(a)$, and

$$\left|\frac{1}{h}\right| \leq \frac{1}{\varepsilon} \quad \text{in } D_r^*(a).$$

By Riemann's theorem, $\dfrac{1}{h}$ has a removable singularity at a. Then f has at most a pole at a. Contradiction. □

Residue Calculus

Last time, we classified (isolated) singularities of holomorphic functions:

(1) Removable (so fake).

(2) Poles (locally modeled around the singularity).

(3) Essential singularities (wild, neither (1) nor (2)).

We proved that if f has an essential singularity at a, then $f(D_r^*(a))$ is dense in $\mathbb{C}$ for all $r > 0$. This is the Casorati-Weierstrass theorem. Today, we discuss a Cauchy theorem for meromorphic functions. We ask the following question: How do poles contribute to the line integral of a meromorphic function around a closed contour C?

We start from the Cauchy integral formula. For $h : \Omega \supseteq \overline{D_r(z_0)} \to \mathbb{C}$ a holomorphic function, we have by the Cauchy integral formula

$$h(a) = \frac{1}{2\pi i} \int_C \frac{h(\zeta)}{\zeta - a}\, d\zeta$$

for $a \in D_r(z_0)$, where $C = \partial D_r(z_0)$.

Note that the integrand is a meromorphic function (of ζ) with at most a simple pole at $\zeta = a$.

Now, suppose that f is a meromorphic function on Ω with a pole at a. What is the integral of $f(z)\,dz$ along a closed (positively oriented) circle?

One way is to look at the Laurent series expansion around a. So

$$\begin{aligned} f(z) &= \sum_{n=-m}^{\infty} a_n (z-a)^n \\ &= \frac{a_{-m}}{(z-a)^m} + \frac{a_{-m+1}}{(z-a)^{m-1}} + \cdots + \frac{a_{-1}}{z-a} + a_0 + a_1(z-a) + \cdots \end{aligned}$$

This implies that for a small circle C (within the radius of convergence) we know that

$$\int_C f(z)\,dz = \sum_{n=-m}^{\infty} a_n \underbrace{\int_C (z-a)^n\,dz}_{= \begin{cases} 0 & \text{if } n \neq -1 \\ 2\pi i & \text{if } n = -1 \end{cases}} = 2\pi i\, a_{-1}.$$

Remark: The limit and integral swap is justified due to the uniform convergence in the radius of convergence.

This motivates the following definition.

Definition. We define the **residue** of f at a to be

$$\operatorname{Res}(f, a) = a_{-1}.$$

Example.

(1) $\operatorname{Res}\left(\frac{1}{z}, 0\right) = 1$.

(2) $\operatorname{Res}\left(\frac{1}{z^2}, 0\right) = 0$.

(3) $\operatorname{Res}\left(\frac{e^z}{z^2}, 0\right)$. Note that

$$\frac{e^z}{z^2} = \frac{1 + z + \frac{z^2}{2!} + \frac{z^3}{3!} + \cdots}{z^2} = \frac{1}{z^2} + \frac{1}{z} + \cdots$$

So $\operatorname{Res}\left(\frac{e^z}{z^2}, 0\right) = 1$.

Going back to what we set up, the residue theorem generalizes CIF to arbitrary meromorphic functions with many more poles and over any contour.

Theorem. **(Residue Theorem)** If $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is meromorphic on Ω, and $\Gamma \subseteq \Omega$ is a (positively oriented) toy contour enclosing a region $D \subseteq \Omega$, and f has no poles on Γ, then

$$\int_\Gamma f(z)\, dz = 2\pi i \sum_{k=1}^{n} \operatorname{Res}(f, a_k),$$

where $a_1, \ldots, a_n$ are the poles of f in D.

Proof. The idea is to subtract off the singular parts of f near each pole. Near each pole a_k, we have the Laurent expansion

$$\begin{aligned} f(z) &= \sum_{n=-m}^{\infty} b_{n,k}(z - a_k)^n \qquad \text{(holomorphic in a punctured neighborhood of } a_k) \\ &= \sum_{n=-m}^{-1} b_{n,k}(z - a_k)^n + \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} b_{n,k}(z - a_k)^n \\ &= \underbrace{P_k(z)}_{\text{principal part}} + \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} b_{n,k}(z - a_k)^n. \end{aligned}$$

Consider now

$$h(z) = f(z) - \sum_{k=1}^{n} P_k(z),$$

which is holomorphic on D (the singularities at each a_k are removable). Implying that

$$\int_\Gamma h(z)\, dz = 0,$$

and so

$$\begin{aligned}\int_\Gamma f(z)\,dz &= \sum_{k=1}^{n} \int_\Gamma P_k(z)\,dz \\ &= \sum_{k=1}^{n} \int_\Gamma \frac{b_{-1,k}}{z-a_k}\,dz \\ &= \sum_{k=1}^{n} \operatorname{Res}(f,a_k) \int_\Gamma \frac{dz}{z-a_k} \\ &= \sum_{k=1}^{n} \operatorname{Res}(f,a_k)\, 2\pi i.\end{aligned}$$

Here, the third line uses $b_{-1,k} = \operatorname{Res}(f,a_k)$, and the second line uses that $\int_\Gamma (z-a_k)^n\,dz = 0$ for $n \neq -1$. □

Souped Up Contour Integration

So we had our midterm on Tuesday, grading should be done by next Friday. Last week, we started chapter 3 of Stein & Shakarchi (Meromorphic functions), so we classified singularities (we are mainly interested in poles) and most importantly, we proved the Residue theorem, which is an upgraded version of Cauchy's integral theorem but for meromorphic functions with arbitarily many poles on any toy contour. Given $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ a meromorphic function with a being a pole. We defined the residue of f at a to be

$$c_{-1} = \operatorname{Res}(f, a)$$

Where c_{-1} denotes the -1 term in the Laurent series. In general, we compute the limit

$$\operatorname{Res}(f, a) = \lim_{z \to a} (z - a) f(z)$$

If moreover, $f(z)$ is of the form $\frac{p(z)}{q(z)}$ where p, q are holomorphic functions and $q(a) = 0$ and $p(a) \neq 0$. The first formula extracts the -1 term from the Laurent expansion, while the second one comes from

$$\begin{aligned} \operatorname{Res}(f, a) &= \lim_{z \to a} (z - a) \frac{p(q)}{q(z) - q(a)} \\ &= \frac{p(z)}{q'(z)} \end{aligned}$$

There is another formula that comes from the series expansion (details are left as an exercise!), which works for higher order poles. Indeed, if f has a pole of order m at a, then $f(z) = \frac{h(z)}{(z-a)^m}$, where h is holomorphic and $h(a) \neq 0$. Then we have that

$$\operatorname{Res}(f, a) = \frac{h^{(m-1)}}{(m-1)!}$$

In particular, we also saw that if we integrate around a small circle $C_r(a)$, then

$$\int_{C_r(a)} f(z) = 2\pi i \operatorname{Res}(f, a)$$

Using this setup, and with the assumption that f has no poles on a toy contour C whose interior $D \Subset \Omega$, we have

$$\int_C f(z)\, dz = 2\pi i \sum_{k=1}^{n} \operatorname{Res}(f, a)$$

where a_k denotes the poles of f in D.

Our goal for today is to compute some integrals using the residue theorem, but first let us look at some examples of computing residues

Example. If $f(z) = \frac{1}{z^2+1}$, we have poles at $\pm i$, namely

$$\frac{1}{z^2 + 1} = \frac{1}{(z - i)(z + i)}$$

These are simple poles so we can use our first formula to get

1. $\operatorname{Res}(f, i) = \frac{1}{2i} = -\frac{i}{2}$
2. $\operatorname{Res}(f, -i) = \frac{i}{2}$

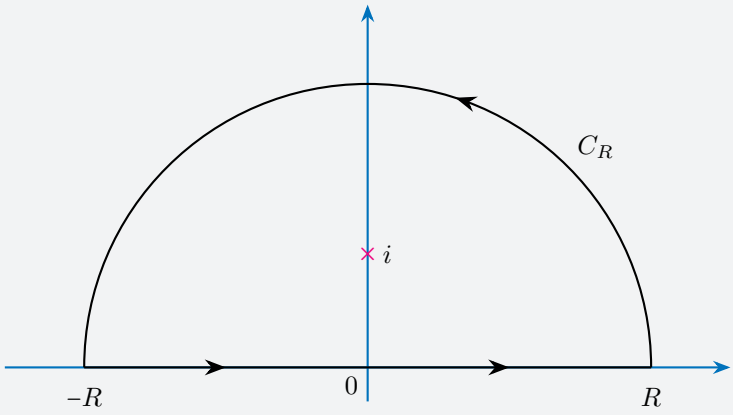
Example. Consider now $f(z) = \frac{e^{az}}{1+e^z}$, where $a \in \mathbb{R}$. The poles occur at $z = i(2n+1)\pi$ where $n \in \mathbb{N}$. We compute the residue at $i\pi$. Indeed, $\operatorname{Res}(f, i\pi) = \frac{e^{iat}}{e^{i\pi}} = e^{(a-1)i\pi}$.

Now, we use the residue theorem to compute some integrals[3]. There might be some surprises but it really is just a more "enhanced" version of what we usually did in the past. But now have to account for a few things, since now our functions are meromorphic.

Example. Consider the following improper integral

$$\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} \frac{dx}{1+x^2}$$

We ask a question: How to compute this? Again, as mentioned earlier, the process is similar to what we did a few lectures ago, so from our past experience, we elevate to a nice enough function. To this end, let $f(z) = \frac{1}{1+z^2}$. Then we draw a toy contour and we apply Cauchy's theorem to get 0 and its all fun and games until we notice that there is a problem. Surprise surprise we have to account for poles at i and $-i$, per the earlier example. Life does not get any harder as we can summon the residue theorem. So we have the following contour



So now by the residue theorem, we get

$$\int_{-R}^{R} f(z)\, dz + \int_{C_R} f(z) = 2\pi i \operatorname{Res}(f, i) = \pi$$

To compute $\int_{C_R} f(z)$, we parametrize C_R by $z(t) = Re^{it}$, $t \in [0, 2\pi]$. Then using the integral estimate, we get

$$\begin{aligned} \left| \int_{C_R} f(z)\, dz \right| &= \left| \int_0^{\pi} \frac{iRe^{it}}{1 + R^2 e^{2it}} dt \right| \\ &\leq \int_0^{\pi} \frac{R^2}{R^2 - 1} dt \xrightarrow[R\to\infty]{} 0 \end{aligned}$$

Thus

$$\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} \frac{1}{1+x^2} dx = \pi$$

as required.

[3] I think souped up contour integration would make a decent title for this section

So we are not doing anything completely different, it is the same process as when we were working with Cauchy's theorem, but now since we are dealing with poles and meromorphic functions, we have to use the residue theorem instead of Cauchy's theorem. We elevated to a meromorphic function, drew the toy contour, and then used the residue theorem to get the total sum of the integrals of each segment, and then computed $\int_{C_r} f(z)$, which then gave us the desired result. Now let us look at another integral

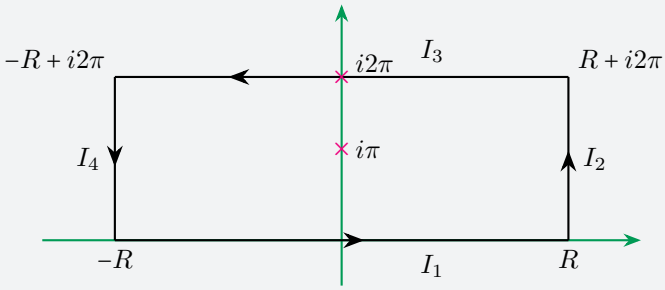
Example. Consider

$$\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} \frac{e^{ax}}{1+e^x} dx$$

As discussed earlier, we have poles at $i(2n+1)\pi$, we elevate to

$$f(z) = \frac{e^{az}}{1+e^z}$$

We will integrate along



Now, by the residue theorem, we have that

$$\begin{aligned}\int_{I_1} + \int_{I_1} + \int_{I_1} + \int_{I_1} &= 2\pi i \operatorname{Res}(f, i\pi) \\ &= 2\pi i e^{(a-1)}\pi\end{aligned}$$

Observe

$$I_3 = \int_{-R+i2\pi}^{R+i2\pi} \frac{e^{az}}{1+e^z}\, dz = -\int_{-R}^{R} \frac{e^{at}e^{a2i\pi}}{1+e^t}\, dt = e^{a2\pi i} I_1$$

Then this implies that

$$I_1 + I_3 = (1 - e^{a2\pi i}) \int_{-R}^{R} \frac{e^{at}}{1+e^t}\, dt$$

Since we ran out of time, the details for I_2 and I_4 are left as an exercise, although this step should not be too bad as we can argue for one of the segments and then conclude by symmetry that the value is the same for the other.

Exercise: Show that

$$\lim_{R\to 0} \left| \int_{I_2} f(z)\, dz \right| = 0$$

$$\lim_{R\to \infty} \left| \int_{I_4} f(z)\, dz \right| = 0$$

Imply that

$$(1 - e^{a2\pi i}) \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} \frac{e^{at}}{1+e^t} dt = e^{(a-1)\pi}$$

Integral Strikes Back and the Riemann Sphere!

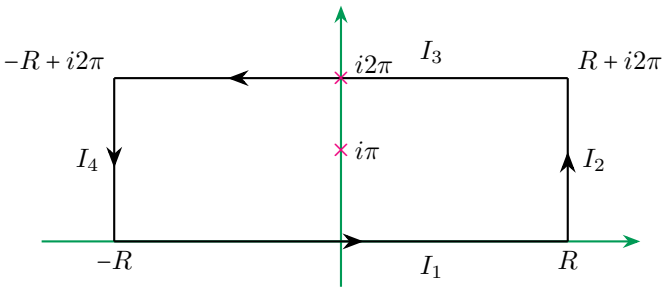
Last time, we wanted to compute the integral

$$\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} \frac{e^{ax}}{1+e^x} dx$$

As discussed earlier, we have poles at $i(2n+1)\pi$, we elevate to

$$f(z) = \frac{e^{az}}{1+e^z}$$

We will integrate along



Some Heuristic: We are interested in the lower segment, but it turns out that if we exponentiate, the upper piece is the lower one shifted, so we have some phase. Using our favorite residue theorem, we have that

$$\begin{aligned}\int_{I_1} + \int_{I_2} + \int_{I_3} + \int_{I_4} &= 2\pi i \operatorname{Res}(f, i\pi) \\ &= -2\pi i e^{(a-1)}\pi\end{aligned}$$

Now,

$$\int_{I_3} f(z)\, dz = -\int_{-R}^{R} \frac{e^{at}e^{a2\pi i}}{1+e^t}\, dt = -e^{a2\pi i}\left(\int_{I_1} f(z)\, dz\right)$$

Now, we compute $\int_{I_2} f(z)\, dz$, To this end, we take our parametrization to be $z(t) = R + it$, then

$$\int_{I_2} f(z)\, dz = \int_0^{2\pi} \frac{e^{aR}e^{iat}}{1+e^R e^{it}}\, dt$$

Using our second favorite estimate (since our favorite has to be the Cauchy estimate from lecture 9), it follows that

$$\left|\int_{I_2} f(z)\, dz\right| \leq 2\pi \frac{e^{aR}}{|e^R - 1|} \xrightarrow[R\to\infty]{} 0$$

Similarly, using $z(t) = -R + it$

$$\int_{I_4} f(z)\, dz = -i\int_0^{2\pi} \frac{e^{-aR}e^{iat}}{1+e^{-a}e^{it}} dt$$

Then

$$\left|\int_{I_2} f(z)\, dz\right| \leq 2\pi \frac{e^{-aR}}{1+e^{-R}} \xrightarrow[R\to\infty]{} 0$$

So, we have that

$$(1-e^{a\pi i})\int_{I_1} f(z)\,dz = \int_{I_1+I_3} f(z) = -2\pi i e^{a\pi i} - \int_{I_2+I_4} f(z)\,dz$$

Now, let us take $R \to \infty$ to get

$$(1-e^{a\pi i})\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} \frac{e^{ax}}{1+e^x}\,dx = 2\pi i \frac{e^{a\pi i}}{1+e^x}$$

then

$$\begin{aligned}\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} \frac{e^{ax}}{1+e^x}\,dx &= -2\pi i \frac{e^{a\pi i}}{1=e^{2a\pi i}} \\ &= \frac{2\pi i}{e^{\pi i a} - e^{-\pi i}} \\ &= \frac{\pi}{\sin \pi a}\end{aligned}$$

Remark: Similar integrals will be on the homework for practice.

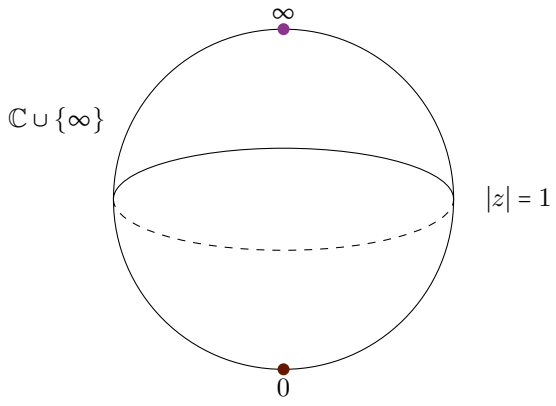
Now, we want to discuss a new perspective on singularities and poles. Indeed, first recall that for a holomorphic $f : \{0 < |z| < r\} \to \mathbb{C}$

1. f has a removable singularity at 0 if and only if $|f| \le C$ in some punctured disk D_r^*
2. f has a pole at 0 if and only if $\lim_{z\to 0} |f(z)| = \infty$
3. f has an essential singularity at 0 if and only if the limit in (2) does not exist[4]

At this point, we saw some visualizations that prof cooked up using Claude, which basically illustrated the behaviors of different singularities per our classification, feel free to check them out on Quercus.

"You can make this. Ask Claude, it is very good" - Freid Tong

So the takeaway is that we have a visual representation of zeros and poles, and moreover these two behave somewhat similarly, of course essential singularities are the wild ones, as established in the past few lectures. Now, let us look at another way of looking at poles, indeed. Consider $f(z) = e^z/z$, this has a pole at 0, so $\lim_{z\to 0} |f(z)| = \infty$. So now, the idea is to add "∞" to $\mathbb{C}$! So now, we may work in the **extended complex plane** $\mathbb{C} \cup \{\infty\}$. Now let $\mathbb{C}_z$ denote a copy of the $\mathbb{C}$ that contains z, and we denote by $\mathbb{C}_w$ the copy of $\mathbb{C}$ that contains $w = \frac{1}{z}$ where $z \neq 0$.



[4] i was too lazy to type up the limit in tex xd

The idea is to build $\mathbb{C} \cup \{\infty\}$ by gluing together the two copies of $\mathbb{C}$ along their overlap. In the figure, the arrows indicate that each of $\mathbb{C}_z$ and $\mathbb{C}_w$ maps onto the sphere, with z and w denoting arbitrary points of the respective charts. We identify a point $z \in \mathbb{C}_z$ with the point $w \in \mathbb{C}_w$ whenever $z \neq 0$ and $w = \frac{1}{z}$. In a nutshell, we are gluing $\mathbb{C}_z \setminus \{0\}$ to $\mathbb{C}_w \setminus \{0\}$ via the map $z \mapsto 1/z$, which is a bijection between these two punctured planes. Basically this tells us that as $z \to \infty$ in $\mathbb{C}_z$, we have $w = 1/z \to 0$ in $\mathbb{C}_w$, so the origin of $\mathbb{C}_w$ plays the role of the missing point. We call this point ∞, namely $w = 0$ corresponds to $z = \infty$. The result is a single space in which $\mathbb{C}_z$ covers everything except ∞, $\mathbb{C}_w$ covers everything except 0 (in z-coordinates), and the two patches agree on the overlap. We call this the **Riemann sphere**, which we denote by $\widehat{\mathbb{C}}$ (Stein uses $\mathbb{S}$). Through this construction, we can make sense of a pole at z_0 as simply a point where f takes the value ∞, so near z_0, the function $1/f$ is holomorphic with a zero at z_0, so f is a nice map into $\widehat{\mathbb{C}}$ there.

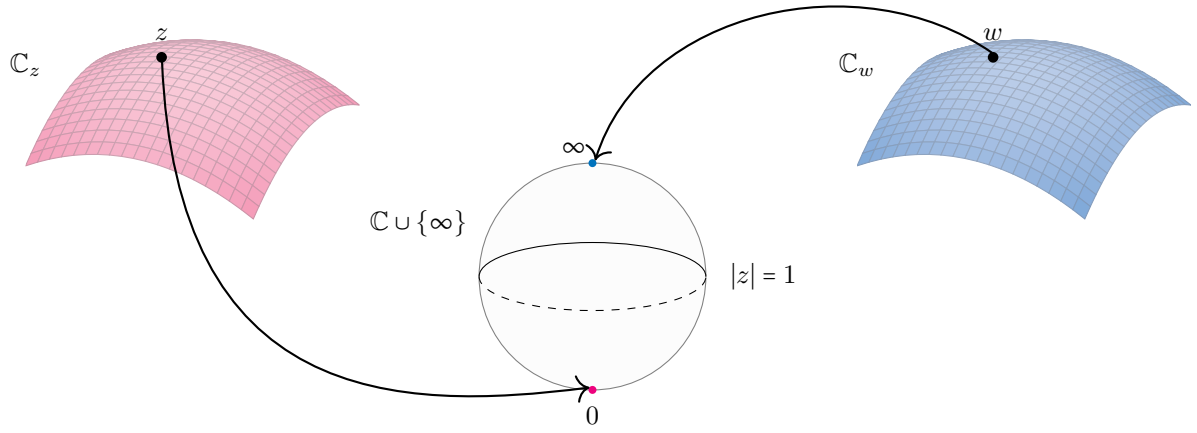


Figure 15: Our cooked illustration of this construction, what we are showing here is the gluing maps from $\mathbb{C}_z$ and $\mathbb{C}_w$.

This is really nice as now we can basically give ∞ the same footing as 0. Yes, this is the Riemann sphere.

Remark: This is a Riemann surface.

Now, we can say that f has a pole at 0 if and only if it extends a holomorphic function on the Riemann sphere by taking $f(0) = \infty$. Which is also equivalent to saying $1/f$ is holomorphic and has a zero at 0. This is very interesting since now we can think of analytic problems from a geometric lens. Our goal now is to classify singularities at ∞. Indeed, let $f : X = \{|z| > R\} \to \mathbb{C}$ be a holomorphic function, we say that f has a removable singularity/essential singularity/pole at ∞ if $F(w) = f(1/w)$ has a removable singularity/essential singularity/pole at 0 respectively.

Example.

1) $f(z) = e^z$ is essential: if we reparametrize, we get $e^{1/w}$, which has an essential singularity at $w = 0$, i.e. f has an essential singularity at ∞.

2) $f(z) = a_n z^n + \cdots + a_0$. This has a pole of order n at ∞ (write $F(w) = \dfrac{a_n}{w^n} + \cdots$).

3) $f(z) = \dfrac{a}{z} + b$. It has a pole at 0 but is well defined at ∞, but in fact $f\left(\frac{1}{w}\right) = aw + b$ has a removable singularity at $w = 0$.

For $f(z) = \dfrac{1}{z} + z + 2$, we have a simple pole at ∞.

This lets us classify singularities at ∞.

Definition. f is **meromorphic** on $\widehat{\mathbb{C}}$ if f restricted to the charts $\mathbb{C}_z, \mathbb{C}_w$ are both meromorphic, i.e. $f(z)$ is meromorphic on $\mathbb{C}$ and $F(w) = f(1/w)$ is also meromorphic.

Claim: A meromorphic function on $\widehat{\mathbb{C}}$ has finitely many poles.

Proof. Note that f can only have finitely many poles in $\{|z| < 2\}$. By symmetry, F can only have finitely many poles in $\{|w| < 2\}$. Since $\{|z| < 2\}$ and $\{|w| < 2\}$ together cover $\widehat{\mathbb{C}}$, f has finitely many poles on $\widehat{\mathbb{C}}$. □

Example.

1) $f(z) = a_n z^n + \cdots + a_0$.
2) $f(z) = \dfrac{z-a}{z-b}$, pole at $z = b$. Look at the chart at $\{\infty\}$: $F(w) = \dfrac{1-aw}{1-bw}$, which is holomorphic at $w = 0$.
3) $f(z) = \dfrac{p(z)}{q(z)}$, p, q polynomials, $q \neq 0$.
4) Non-example: $f(z) = e^z$.

So meromorphic functions on the Riemann sphere are nicer than meromorphic functions on $\mathbb{C}$. The following theorem basically classifies them on $\widehat{\mathbb{C}}$

Theorem. The meromorphic functions on $\widehat{\mathbb{C}}$ are rational.

Proof. It's quite simple, but simple because I sort of put it on the midterm. - Freid Tong

Let f be meromorphic on $\widehat{\mathbb{C}}$. Note that f has a finite number of poles $\eta_1, \ldots, \eta_k \in \mathbb{C}_z$, counted with multiplicity. We get rid of the poles. Define

$$g(z) = f(z) \prod_{i=1}^{k} (z - \eta_i),$$

which is entire.

Claim: g is a polynomial.

Proof of claim: So we look at the behavior at ∞. Two cases:

i) If g has a removable singularity at ∞, then g is bounded and entire, so g is constant.

ii) If g has a pole of order m at ∞, then

$$\lim_{|z| \to \infty} |g(z)| = \infty,$$

so by question 5 on the midterm[5], g is a polynomial.

[5] Midterm jumpscare!

Hence $f(z) = g(z) \Big/ \prod_{i=1}^{k}(z - \eta_i)$ is rational. □

□

The Ultimate Guide to Winning Every Argument

"You will never lose an argument after this lecture" - Freid Tong

So, I think the quote above should give you a bit of an idea from what theorem will be covered today, the **Argument principle**. The motivation comes from the following question: How to define and work with logarithms? So recall that $w = e^z = e^x(\cos y + i \sin y)$, roughly speaking,

$$\log w = \underbrace{\log |w|}_{\text{real log}} + \underbrace{i \arg w}_{\text{multi valued}}$$

Often, we can choose a "branch" of "log"[6]

$$e^{\log w} = w$$
$$e^{\log w}(\log w)' = 1$$

so $(\log w)' = 1/w$. This is interesting, since the left side is not always well defined, as it depends on the choice of branch. For now, our goal is to define the logarithmic derivative of f. Indeed, given a holomorphic function $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$. Again, we run into this problem where $\log f$ is not well defined, which obviously sucks. So we turn to the derivative, surprisingly, the derivative is well defined! So by the chain rule

$$(\log f)' = \frac{f'}{f}$$

This is a meromorphic function, since it is a quotient of holomorphic functions, it can have poles. Suppose now that we wanted to integrate along a closed curve $\gamma \subseteq \Omega$. We let C be a closed curve, and suppose that f is nonzero. Then from our previous experience, we can use a parametrization to write

$$\int_C \frac{f'(z)}{f(z)}\, dz = \int_a^b \frac{f'(z(t))}{f(z(t))} z'(t)\, dt$$

As we move around C, we can choose a branch of arg (go back to the visualization), then we get

$$\int_a^b \frac{d}{dt}(\log f(z(t)))\, dt$$

Then by the Fundamental Theorem of Calculus, we get

$$\log(z(b)) - \log(z(a))$$
$$= 2\pi i n$$

Where we denote by n the **winding number** of f as z moves along C. So this is the change of $\arg z$, the argument principle gives us a way to compute this.

Theorem. **(Argument Principle)** Suppose that f is meromorphic on $\Omega \to \mathbb{C}$, let C be a toy contour with $\operatorname{int} C = D \subseteq \Omega$. Then

$$\int_D \frac{f'(z)}{f(z)}\, dz = 2\pi i(\mathfrak{z} - \mathfrak{p})$$

Where $\mathfrak{z}$ denotes the number of zeroes, and $\mathfrak{p}$ denotes the number of poles. Furthermore, the zeros and poles are counted with their multiplicities.

Proof. Homework. □

Now, we state and prove a theorem due to Rouche

[6] Note that we havent formally defined these terms at the moment, but we will soon

Theorem. **(Rouche's Theorem)** Let f, g be holomorphic functions on $\Omega \to \mathbb{C}$, and C be a circle with interior in Ω, suppose that $|f(z)| > |g(z)|$ for all $z \in C$. Then f and $f+g$ have the same number of zeroes inside C.

Proof. Let $f_t(z) = f(z) + tg(z)$ be such that $f_0 = f$, and $f_1 = f + g$. our hypothesis tells us that f_t has no zeros on the circle, and so we can summon the argument principle to get

$$N_t{}^{7} = \frac{1}{2\pi i} \int_C \frac{f_t'(z)}{f_t(z)}\, dz$$

We claim that N_t is constant. Indeed, we just have to show that its a continuous function of t. To this end, suppose towards a contradiction that it is not, then by the IVT, we have some t_0 in $[0,1]$ where N_{t_0} is not an integer, which contradicts the fact that $N_t \in \mathbb{Z}$ for all t. Now, to show that this is continuous, it suffices to notice that integrand is continuous for $t \in [0,1]$ and $z \in C$.

This makes sense because it already holds for the numerator and the denominator and our hypothesis tells us that $f_t(z)$ does not vanish on the circle, hence N_t is an integer, and moreover it is continuous. Hence it is constant. □

Remark: We have won our first argument using the argument principle!

[7] N_t denotes the number of zeroes here

Consequences of the Argument Principle, Branches of the Logarithm, Homotopies and Simply Connected Domains

Last time, we were discussing the argument principle and its consequences[8]. Note that the chalk is bad so I'll try to note down as much as I can. Anyways, suppose that f is meromorphic in $\Omega \to \mathbb{C}$, and suppose that $C \subseteq \Omega$ is a closed curve with interior D in Ω. f has no zero or poles on C. Then

$$\int_D \frac{f'(z)}{f(z)}\, dz = 2\pi i(\mathfrak{z} - \mathfrak{p})$$

Where $\mathfrak{z}$ $\mathfrak{p}$, denotes the number of zeroes and poles of f, respectively.

This measures the change in $\arg z$ as z winds around C. Note that the zeroes and poles are counted with multiplicity. We proved this in homework 6. In a nutshell the we are measuring the winding number of $f(c)$ along $2\pi i$ (counterclockwise).

This theorem has some important theorems, one of which we saw (namely Rouche's theorem), basically if we have a holomorphic function, and we take a contour on which f is never zero, we can count the number of zeroes inside. Roughly speaking, we can perturb the function and still have the same zeros, as long as the perturbation is small enough. Now what is small enough?

Theorem. **(Rouche's Theorem)** Let f, g be holomorphic functions on $\Omega \to \mathbb{C}$, and C be a circle with interior in Ω, suppose that $|f(z)| > |g(z)|$ for all $z \in C$. Then f and $f + g$ have the same number of zeroes inside C.

Remark: Once again we count the zeroes with multiplicity.

We will see applications in the homework. This seems intuitive, because zeroes do not come out of nowhere, and they don't disappear magically. This is also useful for finding zeroes of polynomials, we can use this theorem to make life easy. Check homework! Now, we discuss some more consequences, which is an important result on the topology of holomorphic mappings

Theorem. (**Open Mapping Theorem**) Suppose that $f : \Omega \subseteq \mathbb{C} \to \mathbb{C}$ is a holomorphic function. If f is not constant, then f is an open map. Namely the image of an open set is open.

Remark: If the domain is not connected, we just assume its not constant on the connected components.

Remark: This fails drastically in the real[9] setting. Take $x^2 : \mathbb{R} \to \mathbb{R}$, this is not an open map, since the image of (-1,1) maps to a non-open interval. That is, to say $f((-1, 1)) = [0, 1)$, which is not open.

Proof. This is very similar to Rouche's theorem[10]. We show that $f(\Omega)$ is open, so it suffices to show that if w_0 is in the image, then a neighborhood of $f(w_0)$ is also in the image. Namely there exists an $\varepsilon > 0$ such that $|w - w_0| < \varepsilon$ implies that $w \in f(\Omega)$. Let $f(z_0) = w_0$ for some fixed z_0. We show that for w sufficiently close to w_0, the function $f(z) - w$ has a zero.

Now, this suggests that we should use the power of the argument principle to count the number of zeros inside the set Ω. So, we pick $\delta > 0$ such that z_0 is the only zero of $f(z) - w_0$ in $D_\delta(z_0)$, a neighborhood of z_0 such that we have an isolated zero. This implies that we can count the number of zeroes via the argument principle, namely

[8] most importantly, we are never losing an argument ever again!

[9] real numbers are not so real i guess

[10] i am running out of footnotes in this page, there is a much easier proof in which we can apply Rouche's theorem

$$0 < N = \frac{1}{2\pi i} \int_{\partial D_\delta(z_0)} \frac{f'(z)}{f(z) - w}\, dz$$

Since $f(z_0)$ is nonvanishing on the boundary of our neighborhood, then

$$\inf_{\partial D_\delta(z_0)} |f(z) - w_0| \geq \varepsilon > 0$$

so if $|w - w_0| < \varepsilon/2$, then

$$\inf_{\partial D_\delta(z_0)} |f(z) - w_0| \geq \varepsilon/2 > 0$$

Implying that N is continuous in w for $|w - w_0| < \varepsilon/2$, and $N > 0$ so $f(z) - w$ has a zero in $D_\delta(z_0)$ □

A corollary of this theorem is the following:

Corollary. If $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is an injective holomorphic function, then the inverse map $f^{-1} : f(\Omega) \to \Omega$ is continuous.

Proof. Exercise. Verify the holomorphicity of the inverse. □

One interesting instance of this theorem has to do with the exponential map. Recall that $e^z = e^x(\cos y + i \sin y)$. This implies that there exists a holomorphic map $L : \mathbb{C} \setminus (-\infty, 0] \to \{z : \operatorname{Im} z \in (-\pi, \pi)\}$ such that $e^{L(z)} = z$, thanks to the exercise. Moreover, $L(z)$ is known as the principlal branch of log. One last application (wooo max mod)

Theorem. (Maximum Modulus Principle) If $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is holomoprhic and nonconstant, then $|f|$ has no maximum.

"The proof of this is 1 line." - Freid Tong

Proof. Suppose otherwise, then $w = \sup |f|$, by the open mapping theorem. $(1 - \varepsilon)w \in f(\Omega)$ for some ε. □

Now, we discuss the logarithm. We have seen already how to construct logs, we can generalize this. But the idea is to look at the exponential and then construct an inverse. But we will try something more general, so we will introduce some terminology.

Definition. Suppose that $\Omega \subseteq \mathbb{C}$ is connected, and $0 \notin \Omega$. A holomorphic map $L : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is a **branch of** log if $e^{L(z)} = z$, for $z \in \Omega$.

Remark: We can work with domains that are not connected as well. But unfortunately these suck, so we want to make our life easy and work with nice domains.

So one might be wondering how these things? We look at some properties first before we introduce more machinery.

Proposition.

1. If $L : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is a branch of log, then $e^{L(z)} L'(z) = 1$. Implying that $L'(z) = 1/z$. So L is a primitive for $1/z$.
2. If L is a branch of log, then so is $L(z) + 2\pi i k$ for $k \in \mathbb{Z}$.
3. If L_1 and L_2 are two branches of log, then

   $$e^{L_1(z) + L_2(z)} = 1$$

   So $L_1 + L_2 \leq 2\pi i k$, implying that $L_1(z) = L_2(z) + 2\pi i k$ for any $k \in \mathbb{Z}$

Now, the main question is: For which domains do we have a branch of log? So we want to see how to find branches of log, say we have such a thing, then the derivative is $1/z$, then this would have a primitive. In other words, we integrate $1/z$. This is basically how we defined logs in MAT157, as the integral of $1/z$.

Theorem. If $1/z$ has a primitive in Ω, then a branch of log exists in Ω

Proof. Let $f(z)$ be a primitive of $1/z$ in Ω, so what we want is that $ze^{-f(z)}$ must be a constant. Apriori this might not be 1, so what we do is we differentiate this to obtain (by the product rule)

$$-ze^{-f(z)}/z = 0$$

Implying that $ze^{-f(z)}$ is a nonzero constant. So we take our branch of log to be $L = f(z) + a$ where $e^a = c$. □

Now we ask another question: When does $\Omega \not\ni 0$ contain a primitive of $1/z$? One answer is Cauchy's theorem, which states that if $\Omega \not\ni 0$ is the interior of a toy contour, then $1/z$ has a primitive. We can generalize this to domains that are simply-connected[11], the idea involves **homotopy**.

Theorem. (**Cauchy's Theorem**) If $\Omega \subseteq \mathbb{C}$ is simply connected, then any holomorphic function $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ has a primitive, and

$$\int_\gamma f(z)\ dz = 0$$

Suppose we have two curves in our domain, and they end and begin at the same point. These curves are **homotopic** if we can "connect them" via a family of curves. The following definition makes this idea more precise:

Definition. We say that two curves γ_0 and γ_1 are **homotopic** in Ω if thre exists $\gamma_s(t) \in \Omega$ where $t \in [a, b]$, $s \in [0, 1]$ and moreover, we have $\gamma_s(a) = \gamma_0(a) = \gamma_1(a)$ and $\gamma_s(b) = \gamma_0(b) = \gamma_1(b)$.

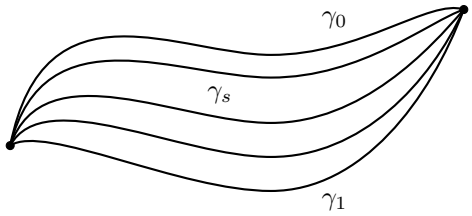


Figure 16: A homotopy of curves γ_0 and γ_1

Definition. We say that Ω is **simply-connected** if any two curves γ_0, γ_1 in Ω with the same endpoints are homotopic in Ω.

Now, we prove Cauchy's theorem

Proof. So, if we revisit the proof of Cauchy's theorem, say we have an integral along two paths which start and end points, these integrals should be the same, this is the only thing we used back them. So now, we want to show that if γ_0, γ_1 are two homotopic curves in Ω, then

$$\int_{\gamma_0} f(z)\ dz = \int_{\gamma_1} f(z)\ dz$$

[11] domains where any two paths can be "deformed" into a single point, or for those who are familiar with 327, π_1 is trivial

The proof via continuous homotopy is in the textbook. Now, suppose we have a smooth homotopy $\gamma_s(t) = F(s,t)$, then we can write

$$\int_{\gamma_0} f(z) = \int_a^b f(F(0,t))\frac{\partial F}{\partial t}(0,t)\ dt$$

and

$$\int_{\gamma_1} f(z) = \int_a^b f(F(1,t))\frac{\partial F}{\partial t}(1,t)\ dt$$

Now, let $H = f(F(s,t))$ be our homotopy. Roughly speaking, we are working along

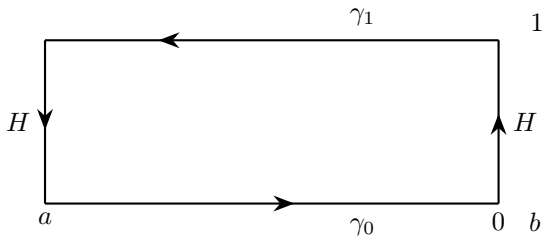


Figure 17: Our homotopy H

Recall that Green's theorem gives us

$$\int_{\partial Q} P\ dt + Q\ ds = \int_Q (Q_t - P_s)dt\ ds$$

So, apply Green's theorem to $P = \frac{\partial H}{\partial t}$ and $Q = \frac{\partial H}{\partial s}$. The rest of the details are left as an exercise. □